

The Sino-Tibetan Etymological Dictionary and Thesaurus

The
Sino-Tibetan Etymological
Dictionary
and
Thesaurus

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The Sino-Tibetan Etymological Dictionary and Thesaurus Project
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(6) PTani * bruu MOUNTAIN GOAT / GOAT ANTELOPE / SEROW	553
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(6) PKar *(p/b)le? ^D LEMUR (FLYING~) / FLYING SQUIRREL	558	(4) PTK *rew CRAB	599
(7) PKar *k-chVN ^A LORIS	559	(5) PKar *da? ^D FISH	599
(8) PLB *ʔ-lon ¹ LORIS, SLOW	559	(6) PQ *r-dzwa FISH	599
(9) PDeng *m(i/u)N MONKEY	559	(7) PTK *k ^A aj FISH / AQUATIC CREATURE	599
		(8) PTB *kroy SHELLFISH	599
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(2) PTB *daw BIRD	562	Chinese comparandum	599
Chinese comparandum	564	(10) PTB *k-ru ≈ *k-rwa SNAIL	599
(3) PTB *hær BIRD / FOWL / CHICKEN	564	Chinese comparandum	600
Chinese comparandum	564	(11) PTB *nyu SNAIL	600
(4) PTB *kak CHICKEN	564	(12) PKC *tseŋ-kol SNAIL (water)	600
(5) PTani *taŋ BIRD	565	(13) PKar *s-ŋwi ^B SNAIL (WATER~)	600
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(8) IA *bhāle COCK / ROOSTER	565	(1b) PTB *pwar BUTTERFLY	600
(9) PKC *hluy COCK / ROOSTER	566	(2) PTani *ru(k/p) ANT	600
(10) IA *kukhurā CHICKEN	566	(3) PTB *k/p/s-rwak ANT	600
(11) PKar *chjaN ^A CHICKEN	566	Chinese comparandum	601
(12) PLB *bay ¹ / ² DUCK	566	(4) PTK *liŋ ANT	601
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(13) IA *battakh DUCK	566	(6) PTani *b(ə/a) BEDBUG	601
(14) IA *hās DUCK	566	(7) PKar *gram ^A BEDBUG	601
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		(9) PKar *k-hne ^A BEE (Apis dorsata)	601
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Chinese comparandum	571	(11) PTB *was BEE / HONEY	602
(2) PTB *na DOG	571	(12) PTB *plyum BEE / WASP	602
(3) PTB *s-k-ywal WILD DOG / JACKAL / DHOLE / WOLF	571	Chinese comparandum	602
(4) PTB *gwa FOX	572	(13) PTB *s-kryap BUG / ANT / INSECT (LAC) / COCHINEAL	602
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(5) PKC *tsiŋ-hŋia FOX / DHOLE / WOLF / WILD CANINE	572	(14) PCN *phi BUTTERFLY	602
(6) PTB *s-pjaŋ WILD DOG	572	(15) NEIA *ywan CATERPILLAR	602
(7) PTB *m-par ≈ *pra WILD DOG / WOLF	573	(16) PKar *si? ^D CATERPILLAR	602
		(17) PKar *(t/d)a? ^D ?baŋ ^A CENTIPEDE	603
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Chinese comparandum	573	(20) PKar *s-ki ^A CRICKET	603
(2) PTB *wu HOWL / WHINE / BARK	573	(21) PKC *tsaŋ-tsel EARTHWORM	603
(3) PTB *laŋ BARK (v.)	573	(22) PTani *(t/d)ol EARTHWORM	603
(4) PTB *haw(ŋ/k) BARK (v.)	574	(23) PKar *je? ^D EARTHWORM	603
(5) PTB *zu(k/ŋ) BARK (v.)	574	(24) PTB *s-ləy FLEA	603
(6) PKC *ŋi(i)r ≈ *ŋu(u)r GROWL	574	(25) PTB *m-tow FLY (n.)	604
		(26) PTani *jiŋ FLY (n.)	604
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Chinese comparandum	580	(28) PKC *klip GADFLY	604
(2) PTani *rjek PIG	580	(29) PTani *jup GADFLY	604
(3) PTani *ra WILD BOAR	580	(30) PTani *mit GNAT	604
(4) PKC *ŋal ≈ *hŋal BOAR / PIG (wild)	581	(31) PTani *kom GRASSHOPPER	605
Chinese comparandum	581	(32) PKar *ʔdwe ^B GRASSHOPPER	605
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Chinese comparandum	581	(35) PTani *gaŋ HORNET	605
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(3) PTB *s-ya ELEPHANT	581	(37) PKar *gra ^B INSECT	605
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Chinese comparandum	582	(39) PTB *k-r-p*at LEECH	605
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(2) PTani *dum BARKING DEER	582	Chinese comparandum	607
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(4) TGTm *pho deer	583	(44) PKar *(chjaN ^A)gra ^B LOUSE (chicken) / INSECT	609
(5) PKar *t-khro? ^D DEER (SAMBHAR)	583	(45) PNC *than MAGGOT	609
(6) PTB *d-yuk DEER (SAMBHUR / SAMBAR)	583	(46) PTB *s-lu(k/ŋ) MAGGOT / BUTTERFLY	609
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(1) PTB *d-wam BEAR (animal)	583	(48) PTB *kraŋ MOSQUITO	610
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		(50) PTB *s-dik SCORPION / CRAB / SHRIMP	610
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(2) PTB *b(y/r)a BIRD / BEE	586	(54) PTB *m-gu SPIDER	611
(3) PTB *ka-n CROW (n.)	588	(55) PTB *k(w)aŋ ≈ *p*aŋ SPIDER / SPIN / SPINDLE	611
Chinese comparandum	589	Chinese comparandum	611
(4) NEIA *a(:)k CROW / RAVEN	589	(56) PKar *b-ʔwaN ^A TERMITE	611
(5) PKar *(tho ^B)lwi ^B DOVE	589	(57) PKar *bi ^B TERMITE (winged)	611
(6) PTB *m-k(r)əw DOVE / PIGEON	589	(58) PTani *pi TICK	612
Chinese comparandum	590	Chinese comparandum	612
(7) PCC *va-zuun DRONGO (bird)	590	(59) PKar *khej ^B TICK	612
(8) PTB *s-məw EAGLE, HAWK	590	(60) PLB *s-yawŋ ² WAX / BEESWAX	612
(9) TGTm *bgrwat EAGLE, KITE, VULTURE	590	(61) PKar *roŋ ^B WEEVIL	612
(10) PTB *g-la(ŋ/k) FALCON, VULTURE, EAGLE, KITE, HAWK, BIRD OF PREY	591	(62) PTB *zril WORM	612
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(11) PTB *hwar HAWK	591	(63) PTani *pum WORM / INSECT	612
(12) PTB *dzwan HAWK / KITE	591	(64) TGTm *b]jat louse	612
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(13) PKC *wa-kok ≈ *-ʔok HORNBILL	592	2.2.7 Other Mammals	612
(14) PTani *graŋ HORNBILL	592	(1) PKC *paa-laak BAT	612
(15) PTB *(g/k)u OWL	592	(2) PTB *ba:k BAT (animal)	612
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(16) PKC *tshim-ʃuu OWL	592	(3) PTani *pon BAT / FLYING FOX	612
(17) PTB *m-dwaŋ PEACOCK	592	(4) PTB *rŋa-mwaŋ CAMEL	613
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(6) PKar *(jow ^b)wi ^a	MOLE	613
(7) PTani *pit	PANGOLIN	613
(8) PKar *jo ^a	PANGOLIN, ANTEATER	613
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(2) PNC *khuay-kaay	BEEHIVE	615
(3) PTB *s-rap	BIT (FOR HORSE)	615
(4) PKar *ki ^a	CARAPACE / SHELL	615
(5) PKC *ŋooy	FISH-TRAP	615
(6) PKC *θek	SPUR (of fowl)	615
(7) PKar *ploŋ ^b	TERMITE MOUND	615
(8) PKC *nor	TRUNK (elephant)	615
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<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	801
(2) PKC * tsim COLLAPSE / FALL DOWN	801
(3) PKC * kluu-I , * kluuk-II COLLAPSE / FALL OVER	801
(4) PCC * poŋ COME OFF / UNLOOSE / FALL OFF	801
(5) PTani * rjuu DO	801
(6) PTK * sa DO / MAKE	801
(7) PTB * day DO / MAKE	801
(8) PKar * ma ^A DO / MAKE	801
(9) PKC * tua? DO / MAKE / WORK	802

(10) PTB *du DWELL / STAY / SIT / REST / LIVE	802	(43) PKC *si(n/I) WEAR / PUT ON (cloth)	821
Chinese comparandum	802	(44) PTB *bat WIND AROUND	821
(11) PTB *(g/k)rwil FALL (AS LEAVES) / CAUSE TO FALL	802	(45) TGTm *bdot load	821
(12) PKar *de?n FALL DOWN	802	(46) PKC *bay EXERT / ATTEMPT	821
(13) PTB *m-bap FALL OVER	802	(47) PCC *traŋ-I, *tran-II EXERT / MAKE EFFORT	821
Chinese comparandum	802	(48) PKar *chuN^A EXERT FORCING TO EXPEL	821
(14) PTB *(k/g)la-k/y/t FALL	802	(49) PCN *jam SEARCH / SEEK	821
Chinese comparandum	803	(50) PNC *ho? VISIT	822
(15) PTB *hwal FALL	803	(51) PTB *pu-n/ŋ CARRY	822
(16) PKC *puur FALL / UPROOT	803	(52) PCN *p[a/ə] n CARRY (by hand)	822
(17) PKC *phuur FELL / UPROOT	803	(53) PTB *baw CARRY (ON BACK OR SHOULDERS)	822
(18) PTB *dzywal HANG DOWN / SAG	803	(54) PKC *pua-I, *puak-II CARRY (on back)	823
(19) PTB *(d/n)way HANG FROM / CLING TO / CREEPER	803	(55) PTB *p-kur or *k-pur CARRY (on back)	823
Chinese comparandum	804	(56) PQ *s-ku x *m-gu CARRY (on back)	823
(20) PTB *pyaŋ HANG	804	(57) PKC *yoonŋ-I, *yoon-II CARRY (together)	823
(21) PTB *hak HANG	804	(58) PCN *han CARRY / PREGNANT / WEAR	823
(22) PTB *k(w)a:y HANG	804	(59) PTani *ga: CARRY ON BACK / PREGNANT	823
Chinese comparandum	804	(60) PTB *tam CARRY ON SHOULDER	823
(23) PKC *bok-I, *bo?-II LIE (face down) / PROSTRATE	804	Chinese comparandum	824
Chinese comparandum	804	(61) PCC *nor BUTT / PUSH (with the head)	824
(24) PCC *tol? MISS	804	(62) PCN *njəm PRESS / PUSH	824
(25) PKC *kh(r)ial-I, *kh(r)ial?-II MISS / FAIL / MISTAKE	804	(63) PTB *hway PUSH	824
(26) PTB *klwaŋ PLAY (as music)	805	(64) PKC *toon PUSH	824
(27) PTB *r-tsa:y PLAY	805	(65) PNC *soon PUSH	824
(28) PTani *soŋ-man PLAY	805	(66) PLB *C-cak PUSH	824
(29) PTB *m-prey PLAY	805	(67) PKar *chan^B PUSH	824
(30) PKC *θual SAG / LONG / HANG (low)	805	(68) PTB *nwam PUSH / PRESS	824
(31) PTB *m-(t/d)u(ŋ/k) SIT	806	(69) PLB *?cwat PLUCK	824
Chinese comparandum	806	Chinese comparandum	825
(32) PNungic *roŋ SIT	806	(70) PKC *hnuuk DRAG / PULL	825
(33) PTB *m-tsu-ŋ SIT	806	(71) PKC *dok-I, *do?-II DRAW / PULL	825
(34) PTB *m-tow SIT	807	(72) PKC *bot-I, *bo?-II PLUCK / PULL OUT / UPROOT	825
(35) PTB *syu-t SIT	807	(73) PCC *phet-I, *phe?-II PULL AWAY (support)	825
(36) PTB *myan SIT	807	(74) PKC *yuuk PULL OUT / RETRACT	825
(37) PTB *m-ba SIT	807	(75) PKC *phooy PULL OUT / UPROOT	825
(38) PTB *rap or *lap SIT	807	(76) PKar *the?n PULL UP	825
(39) PTB *ŋaŋ SIT	807	(77) PKC *waat CLEAR (jungle) / CUT (jungle)	825
(40) Ptk *tsem SIT	807	(78) PKC *sial PAVE / CLEAR (road)	825
(41) PTB *s-(m/n)əy SIT / DWELL / CONTINUATIVE	807	(79) PTB *krəw-t WASH	825
(42) PTB *war SIT / PERCH	808	(80) PKC *soop WASH	825
(43) PTB *waŋ SIT / REMAIN / STAY	808	(81) PTB *su(k) WASH	826
(44) PTani *prut UNdress	808	(82) PTB *tsəy WASH	826
(45) PTB *lyan WAIT	808	(83) PKar *chrow^B WASH (clothes)	827
(46) Ptk *raj WAIT	809	(84) Ptk *p^rew WASH (HANDS)	827
(47) PTB *huŋ WAIT	809	(85) Ptk *cik WASH (HANDS)	827
(48) PTB *s-ŋa-k WAIT	809	(86) PKar *bla^B WASH (the face)	827
(49) PTB *dzawŋ WAIT / WATCH FOR	809	(87) PTB *m/b-s(y)il x *m/b-syal WASH / BATHE	827
(50) PKC *kruan WORK	810	Chinese comparandum	827
(51) IA *kam WORK	810	(88) PCN *m-tsak WASH / BATHE	827
(52) PTB *mow WORK / MOVE	810	(89) PTB *grwa:l WASH / CLEAN	827
Chinese comparandum	811	(90) PTB *hus x *h(u/i)r WASH / MOISTURE / WET	827
(53) TGTm *gjat work	811	Chinese comparandum	827
6.2.0 Action Verbs with Patient	811	(91) PTB *k/p-y(w)ak SCOOP / SWEEP	827
(1) PTB *twak CALCULATE / COUNT / TALLY	811	(92) PTB *syim SWEEP	829
(2) PTB *r-tsyəy COUNT	811	Chinese comparandum	829
Chinese comparandum	812	(93) PTB *s(u/i)t WIPE / SWEEP / RUB / SCRUB	829
(3) PTB *wyal COUNT	812	Chinese comparandum	830
(4) PTani *krw COUNT / CALCULATE	812	(94) PTB *m/s-ka-y GO / STRIDE / SPAN	830
(5) PKC *tik-I, *ti?-II FUEL / ADD (to fire)	812	Chinese comparandum	830
(6) PKC *lua? INHABIT / OCCUPY / INHERIT	812	(95) PKC *?oŋ-I, *?on-II; *hoŋ-I, *hon-II OPEN	830
(7) PNC *teŋ INHABIT / STAY	812	(96) Ptk *fo OPEN	830
(8) PTani *grəŋ LEAN AGAINST	812	(97) PTB *pwa(ŋ/k) OPEN	830
(9) PKC *hŋa(t/n) LEAN ON	812	(98) PTB *twaŋ OPEN	831
(10) PTB *p^a LOOK FOR / SEARCH	812	(99) PTani *-ko OPEN (verbal particle)	831
(11) PTB *(g/k)raŋ MEASURE / COUNT	812	(100) PLB *?-gak^ OPEN WIDE	831
Chinese comparandum	813	(101) PTB *pi-t CLOSE (v.)	832
(12) PNC *suan REPLACE / PLANT (v.)	813	Chinese comparandum	832
(13) PTB *gyi x *dzyi RIDE / SIT ASTRIDE / SIT (HORSE)	813	(102) PTB *b/g-tsum CLOSE (v.) / SHUT	832
(14) PKC *ruk x *hruk SHEATHE / CORK / PUT ON (cloth)	813	(103) PKC *khaar CLOSE / SHUT	833
(15) PTB *s-nak x *naŋ STEP ON	814	(104) Ptk *fuŋ CLOSE / SHUT	833
6.2.2 Assorted action verbs	814	(105) PTB *dzyi:p SHUT / CLOSE (v.) / CLOSE TOGETHER	833
(1) PTB *(g/k)wa-n WEAR / CLOTHE	814	(106) PTB *z(y)um x *zuŋ USE	833
(1a) PTB *s-gywa(n/t) WEAR / PUT ON / CLOTHE	814	Chinese comparandum	833
Chinese comparandum	815	(107) PKC *tum DRUM (v.) / PLAY (instruments)	833
(1b) PTB *w(y)a- x *wit WEAR / CLOTHE	815	(108) PKC *maŋ-I, *man-II; *hmaŋ-I, *hman-II USE / USED TO	834
Chinese comparandum	816	(109) PTB *s-lwap PRACTICE / LEARN	834
(2) PTB *kway CONCEAL / HIDE / SHUN	816	Chinese comparandum	834
(3) PTB *dzin EXHAUST / COME TO AN END	816	(110) PTB *bay REPEAT / PRACTICE	834
Chinese comparandum	816	Chinese comparandum	834
(4) PKC *hot-I, *ho?-II FLUSH (game) / HUNT (game) / STIR UP	816	(111) PTani *fat^1 WRITE	834
(5) PKC *kha(a)m x *khap FORBID / BAN / OBSTRUCT / REFRAIN	816	(111) PTB *b-rəy x *b-ris x *rit x *rin DRAW / WRITE / COUNT	834
(6) PCN *hnjak GUARD (v.)	816	(111a) PTB *b-rəy DRAW / MARK / BOUNDARY	834
(7) PTB *s-klawŋ GUARD / TEND CATTLE / GRAZE / BE AT LEISURE	816	Chinese comparandum	835
Chinese comparandum	817	(111b) PTB *b-ris DRAW / PICTURE	835
(8) PNC *tsiŋ-I, *tsin-II GUARD / WATCH	817	Chinese comparandum	835
(9) PKC *ween-I, *ween-II GUARD / WATCH	817	(111c) PTB *rit DRAW / BOUNDARY	835
(10) PKC *thup HIDE	817	Chinese comparandum	835
(11) Ptk *thum HIDE	817	(111d) PKC *rin SCRATCH / DRAW LINE	835
(12) PTB *s-p^ak HIDE (v.)	817	(111) PKC *reel COUNT / READ / THINK	835
(13) PSPC *wum HIDE / COVER	817	(112) PCN *khaj READ / COUNT	835
(14) PPC *buu HIDE / COVER UP	817	6.3.0 Friction	835
(15) PCN *ram HIDE / CONCEAL	817	(1) PKC *hriat COMB (v.) / BRUSH	835
(16) Ptk *reŋ HUNT	817	(2) PKC *phuay FRAY / RUB / SCRATCH	836
(17) PTB *s-r-way LEAD (v.) / TEND / WATCH / GUARD	817	(3) PKC *taat HONE / RUB / SHARPEN	836
(18) PTB *way LOAD	818	(4) PTB *s-nwat MOP / RUB / WIPE	836
(19) PTB *wa(n/t) LOAD / BURDEN / TRANSPORT	818	(5) PTB *rit REAP / SCRAPE / SHAVE / CUT / SEVER	836
(20) PKC *hool LOOK FOR / SEARCH	818	(6) PTB *s-nu(l/r) RUB AGAINST / GRAZE / TOUCH	836
(21) PKC *hnok OBSTRUCT / DISTURB	818	Chinese comparandum	837
Chinese comparandum	818	(7) PKar *thu?n RUB / CLEAN / POLISH / SCRUB	837
(22) PKC *yuut PAINT / PLASTER / RUB	818	(8) PTB *hnuay RUB / CRUMPLE / TWIST	837
(23) PKar *plom^B PILE	818	(9) PTB *syway RUB / SCRAPE / SHAVE	837
(24) PKC *daal PREVENT / PROTECT	818	(10) PCC *ziat-I, *zia?-II SCRAPE	837
(25) PKar *le?n PUT ON (A NECKLACE), WEAR	818	(11) PTB *kur SCRAPE / SCRATCH / SCOOP	837
(26) PKar *sə?n PUT ON, WEAR	818	(12) Ptk *da SHARPEN	837
(27) PKC *khru(u)l RESCIND / DETER	818	(13) PKC *thaay SHOVEL / SCRAPE	837
(28) PTani *m(a/e) SEARCH / LOOK FOR	818	6.4.0 Harm	837
(29) PKC *yon-I, *yon-II SEARCH / LOOK FOR / QUEST	818	(1) PKC *duk BRUISE (v.) / PINCH	837
(30) PLB *s/g-(y/r)a SEEK / SEARCH / LOOK FOR	819	(2) PKC *khlaw-I, *khlaw?-II HINDER / FORBID / PROHIBIT	837
(31) PKC *dor SHADOW (v.)	819	(3) PTB *g/b-sat KILL	838
(32) PTB *?ap x *gap SHOOT	819	Chinese comparandum	839
(33) PTB *m-puk SHOOT	820	(4) PTani *man KILL	839
(34) PTB *kroy SURROUND	820	(5) PKC *noon MURDER	839
(35) PNC *?u(u)m SURROUND	820	(6) PKC *yeŋ-I, *yen-II PARALYZE	839
(36) PKC *kul-I, *kul?-II SURROUND / CONFINE	821	(7) PCN *m-ʒəm POISON (n.)	839
(37) PTani *krw TAKE AIM	821	(8) PCC *hrem PUNISH / TORTURE	839
(38) PKC *tshin TEST / TRY OUT	821	(9) PTB *m-ta:y STING (as bee) / SCOLD (a person)	839
(39) PTB *bu(w) WEAR	821	(10) PTB *?ik STRANGLE	840
(40) PKar *ch(w)əŋ^A WEAR (A SHOULDER BAG)	821	Chinese comparandum	840
(41) PKC *θeeŋ-I, *θeen-II WEAR (lower garments)	821	(11) PKC *hliam WOUND / INJURE	840
(42) PKC *?ooy-I, *?oy?-II WEAR (necklace)	821		

6.5.0 Fighting	840
(1) PKC * tshaal CONFRONT / QUESTION (v.) / REPROACH	840
(2) PTB * g-rail ⌘ * g-ran ⌘ * ray ENEMY / FIGHT / QUARREL / STRIFE / SWORD / WAR	840
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	841
(3) PTK * nur FIGHT	841
(4) PKC * sual FIGHT / STRUGGLE	841
(5) PKC * daw OPPOSE / FIGHT	841
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	841
(6) PKC * tshim PILLAGE / ATTACK / EXTINGUISH	841
(7) PKC * ḡuan WRESTLE	841
6.5.1 Opposition	841
(1) PCC * laaŋ-I , * laan-II WIN / BEAT / SUPERSEDE	841
(2) PLB * ʔoŋ ¹ WIN / CONQUER / BE COMPLETE	841
(3) PKC * tay WIN / OVERCOME	841
6.6.0 Verbs requiring liquids	841
(1) PTB *(m/g)-(ts/dz)(y)(a/i)k DRIP / DROP (n.)	841
(1a) PTB * g-t(y)ik DRIP / DROP (n.)	842
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	842
(1b) PTB * m-dz(y)ak DRIP / DROP (n.)	842
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	843
(2) PTK * ʰeŋ DRY	843
(3) PKar * hlow ^B BATHE	843
(4) PCN * m-lu BOIL (v.)	843
(5) PTK * nim DAMP / GENTLE	843
(6) PKC * d̥aam DAMP / MOIST	843
(7) PKC * hnom DAMP / MOIST	843
(8) PKC * puur DIP	843
(9) PNC * pap DIP	843
(10) PKar * ʔdVN ^B DIP UP	843
(11) PTB * ka:(p/m) DRAW (water) / SCOOP (water) / CONCAVE	843
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	844
(12) PTani * dui DRIP	844
(13) PTB * tan DRY	844
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	844
(14) PTB * hyar DRY	844
(15) PTB * g-ran DRY	844
(16) PTB * s-la(m/p) DRY (by fire / sun)	844
(17) PCC * khin DRY (outer part)	845
(18) PTK * kaw DRY (v.t.)	845
(19) PKC * hul DRY / SICCATIVE	845
(20) PKC * luəŋ-I , * luan-II FLOW	845
(21) PTani * buut FLOW	845
(22) PTB * sywar ⌘ * g/b-sywa-n/t FLOW / POUR / SCATTER / SPILL / SOW / BROADCAST	845
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	846
(23) PTB * lwi(y) FLOW / STREAM / RIVER	846
(24) PTB * tway FLOW / SUPPURATE	846
(25) PKC * phuul FOAM / OVERFLOW / BUBBLE / BOIL (v.)	846
(26) PTB * s-ka HOT / DRY	846
(27) PTB * b-yəw-n/t LEAK / DRIP / URINE	846
(28) PKC * liam OVERFLOW / DISAPPEAR	847
(29) PTB *(b/p) rup OVERFLOW / GUSH / SQUIRT / FLOOD	847
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	847
(30) PTani * luuk POUR	847
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	847
(31) PTB * r-lu(w) POUR / BATHE	847
(32) PKC * lay-I , * layʔ-II POUR / POUR OUT	847
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	847
(33) PKC * roon POUR IN	847
(34) PKC * ḡun-I , * ḡunʔ-II ; * ḡun-I , * ḡut-II POUR OUT / EMPTY OUT	847
(35) PKC * yoot PRESS OUT	847
(36) PCC * tleen RINSE / CLEANSE	848
(37) PTB * s-rup SNUFF UP / SIP / SUCK	848
(38) PTani * pom ~ * promʔ SOAK	848
(39) PKar * pru ^A SPRAY (v.)	848
(40) PCN * yaʔ SWIM / SLICE	848
(41) PTB * s-nyak WET	848
(42) PNC * koot WET	848
(43) PTani * ju-jəŋ WET	848
(44) PTK * ju WET	848
(45) PKar * cə ^B WET	848
(46) PTB * pwam WET	848
6.7.0 Movement	849
(1) PKC * klun-I , * klun-II ARRIVE / RETURN	849
(2) PKC * hrial AVOID / GO (round)	849
(3) PKC * weel CIRCLE / GO (round)	849
(4) PKC * pial DEVIATE / AVOID / STRAY	849
(5) PTB * s-lay ⌘ * ley PASS / EXCEED	849
(6) PCC * heel SKIRT (v.) / GO (round)	849
(7) PKC * pal WADE / PASS BY / TREAD ON / WALK ON	849
6.7.1 Inward	849
(1) PKC * nayʔ APPROACH	849
(2) PTK * da ARRIVE	849
(3) PTK * juŋ ARRIVE	849
(4) PKar * ta ^B ARRIVE	849
(5) PKC * khleŋ ARRIVE / REACH	849
(6) PKC * phaa-I , * phaak-II ARRIVE / REACH / ATTAIN	849
(7) PNC * tum ENTER	850
(8a) PKC * luut ENTER	850
(8b) PKC * hluʔ INSERT	850
(9) PTK * tsaŋ ENTER	850
(10) PKar * nVʔ ^D ENTER	850
(11) PCN * ʒa GO IN / ENTER	850
(12) PKC * peem IMMIGRATE / MIGRATE	850
(13) PKC * th(u/a)n INFUSE / POUR IN / PUT IN	850
(14) PL * luk or * lap ENTER	850
(15) PKC * hrolʔ INSERT / POKE	850
(16) PKC * san INSERT / PUT IN	850
(17) PKC * ḡaan REACH	850
(18) PKC * phaan REACH	850
(19) PKC * yep-I , * yeʔ-II TUCK IN / INSERT	850
6.7.2 Outward	850
(1) PTB * hwaŋ COME (OUT) / ENTER	850
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	851
(2) PTB * s-prwa-k COME OUT / EMERGE / BRING OUT	851
(3) PKC * poot ⌘ * puut COME OUT / EMERGE / PROTRUDE	851
(4) PTB * s-twak COME OUT / GO OUT / EMERGE	851
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	853
(5) PKC * ph(u/o)l EXHUME / TAKE OUT	853
(6) PTani * len EXIT (v.)	853
(7) PTB * (d/t)wan GO OUT / COME OUT / PULL	853
(8) PKar * lwe ^A GO	853
(9) PKC * lan PROCEED / CONTINUE ON	853
(10) PCC * peeŋ-I , * peen-II TURN AWRY / BRANCH OFF	853
6.7.3 Awkwardly, Irregularly, Abruptly	854
(1) PKC * hnoʔ HASTEN	854
(2) PTB * grim HASTEN	854
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	854

(3) PKC * ploot SLIP OUT	854
(4) PKC * teŋ SLIP / FALL DOWN	854
(5) PTB *(b/p) lya-I SLIP / SLIPPERY	854
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	854
(6) PKC * waay STRAY / LOST / WANDER	854
(7) PTB * ʔut SWAGGERING / NOISY	854
(8) PKar * khin ^A TILTED	854
(9) PTB * dar ⌘ * d(u/i)r TREMBLE / SHIVER (fear, cold)	854
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	855
(10) PKC * looŋ-I , * loŋʔ-II WALLOW / ROLL ABOUT	855
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(1) PTB * r-t(y/w)ak KICK	855
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	855
(2) PKC * tool-I , * tolʔ-II SLIDE / BACKSLIDE / GLIDE (v.i.)	855
(3) PKC * tholʔ SLIDE / BACKSLIDE / GLIDE (v.t.)	855
(4) PCC * hlaaŋ-I , * hlaan-II STEP (v.) / LIFT UP / LIFT DOWN	856
(5) PKar * thu ^B SWAY / SWING	856
(6) PTani * kor TAKE A STEP	856
(7) PTB * grwat TRAVEL / GO THROUGH	856
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	856
(8) PKC * laaŋ-I , * laan-II TRAVEL / VISIT	856
(9) PKC * yin TRAVEL / VISIT	856
(10) PKar * jam ^B TREAD	856
(11) PCC * leen-I , * leen-II VISIT / WANDER	856
(12) PCN * tsaj WALK	856
(13) PKC * waak-I , * waʔ-II WANDER / CRAWL / ROAM	856
(14) PCC * lek WAVE (v.) / FLASH	856
6.7.5 Medium Primary (e.g. air)	857
(1) PTB * byar ⌘ * p(i/u)r FLY (v.)	857
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	857
(2) PTB *(p/b) yam FLY (v.)	857
(3) PNC * leen-I , * leen-II FLY (v.)	858
(4) PTK * praj FLY	858
(5) PTani * bjaŋ SWIM	858
(6) PTB * pyaw SWIM / FLOAT / RAFT	858
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	858
6.7.6 Circularly	858
(1) PKC * kup CIRCLE / EMBRACE	858
(2) PKC * wial CURL UP / ENTWINE	859
(3) PKC * lip CURL UP / EVAGINATE / TURN INSIDE OUT	859
(4) PTB * sik PINCH / TWIST	859
(5) PKC * liŋ ROLL UP / CURL UP	859
(6) PTK * niŋ SPIN	859
(7) PLB * ʔ-gyaŋ ¹ SPIN / ROTATE / TOP (toy)	859
(8) PTB * s-mway SPINDLE / TWIRL	859
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	859
(9) PTB * m-p(y)up TURN OVER / ROLL OVER / SEARCH FOR	859
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	860
(10) PTani * rjat ¹ TWIST (STRANDS OF ROPE)	860
(11) PTK * rej TWIST	860
(12) PTB * m/s-na:y TWIST / KNEAD / SOFTEN	860
(13) PTB * wyat TWIST / TURN	860
(14) PTB * s-way WHIRL / BRANDISH / WAVE (v.)	861
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	861
6.7.7 Up, etc.	861
(1) PTani * čəŋ ASCEND	861
(2) PKC * ka(a)(y/I) ASCEND / CLIMB UP	861
(3) PTK * ka CLIMB / ASCEND	861
(4) PTB * kak EXPENSIVE / AT ITS PEAK	861
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	861
(5) PCC * phok-I , * phoʔ-II LEVER / RAISE / TIP UP	861
(6) PTB * dzwaŋ LOFTY / ELEVATED	861
(7) PTB * syar RISE / EAST	862
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(1) PTB * s/ʔ-yuk DESCEND	862
(2) PTB * zak DESCEND	862
(3) PTK * ta DESCEND	863
(4) PKar * laŋ ^A DESCENT / GO DOWN / SET	863
(5) PTB * l(i/u)p SINK INTO / DIVE	863
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(1a) PTB * gar DANCE / SING / LEAP / STRIDE	863
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(1b) PTB * ga DANCE / LEAP / STRIDE	863
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(2) PKC * loon CRAWL	864
(3) PTK * bo CRAWL	864
(4) PL * Nkak CRAWL / CREEP	864
(5) PKC * yaam CREEP / CRAWL / SPREAD	864
(6) PKC * laam DANCE	864
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	864
(7) PKC * yaam FLEE	864
(8) PTB * hywa(p/m) JUMP	864
(9) PTB * p(r)wak JUMP	864
(10) TGTm * ts^hjoŋ JUMP	865
(11) PTQ * N-tsak JUMP	865
(12) PKC * yuaŋ-I , * yuan-II JUMP / BOUNCE / FLY (v.) / LEAP	865
(13) PTB * b-(l/r)əy RUN	865
(14) PTB * gan ⌘ * k(y)at RUN / DANCE / KICK	865
(15) PCC * tlaan RUN / FLEE	866
(16) PTK * jaam RUN / FLEE	866
(17) PTB * plwaŋ RUN / FLEE / JUMP UP	866
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(18) PTB *(g/h) yar RUN / RIDE / GO BY VEHICLE	867
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(21) PTK * nuk SHAKE	867
(22) PKC * hlok-I , * hloʔ-II SHAKE / LIFT UP	867
(23) PKC * thiŋ-I , * thin-II SHAKE / SHUDDER	867
(24) PKC * pet SPRING / SPRINT	867
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(2) PTK * saam CHASE	867
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(10) PTB * s-n(y)aŋ FOLLOW / REPEAT	868
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	868
(11) PKC * yoʔ FOLLOW / WALK ON	868

(12) PTB *dzywan RIDE	868	(13) PCN *khju CUT	884
(13) PKC *tsi(i)l TRAMPLE / TREAD OUT / WALK ON	868	(14) PTB *tsywar CUT / CHOP	884
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(2) PTB *la-y ɤ *ra COME	869	<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	885
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	870	(19) PTani *pe: CUT / SLICE	885
(3) PKC *huŋ COME	870	(20) PTB *mwa(n/t) CUT / SLICE / CASTRATE	885
(4) PTB *pay COME / GO	870	(21) PTB *(m/b)rak CUT / TEAR / MAUL / LACERATE	885
(5) PKar *khaN^ CROSS (v.)	871	<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	885
(6) PTB *g(o/a)w CROSS OVER	871	(22) PKC *khluu-I, *khluk-II FELL / CUT DOWN	885
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	871	(23) PTB *taɪr HANG UP / IMPALE	886
(7) PTK *ken CROSS	871	(24) PTani *du SKIN / FLAY	886
(8) PTB *bywan GO (out) / COME (out)	871	(25) PTB *s/g-lyap SLICE / PARE / CUT OFF	886
(9) PTani *in GO	871	(26) PKar *pla ^B SPLIT (bamboo strip)	886
(10) PTB *ʔay GO / DIRECTIONAL PARTICLE / TRANSITIVE MOTION	871	(27) PNC *ʔek-I, *ʔeʔ-II SPLIT	886
(11) PKC *kal GO / PACE / WALK	872	(28) PTB *(d)ziɪt ɤ *(t)siɪt SPLIT	886
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(18) PKC *diŋ-I, *diŋ-II STAND / STOP	872	(3) PTani *ɲok LOSE (v.t.)	887
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(2) PTB *twak BITE / CHEW / PECK AT / HOOK ONTO	873	(3) PTB *(b/p)ral LEAVE / DEPART / SEPARATE	887
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	873	<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	887
(3) PTB *r-duŋ BEAT / STRIKE / POUND / FLOG	873	(4) PCC *zuat-I, *zuaʔ-II SPARE / LEAVE	887
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<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	874	(2) PKC *thek-I, *theʔ-II SCATTER / SPATTER / SPRINKLE	887
(5) PTB *(d/t)a:y POUND / CRUSH	874	(3) PCC *phul-I, *phulʔ-II SPRINKLE	887
(6) PKC *deɛŋ-I, *deɛn-II HAMMER / BEAT / HIT / PELT	875	(4) PBod *g-twar SPRINKLE	887
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(8) PKC *wua-I, *wuak-II HIT / BEAT / STRIKE	875	(6) PTB *m/s-prat ɤ *pran SPRINKLE / SPRAY	888
(9) PTani *zit BEAT	875	(7) PTani *kratʔ (?) SPRINKLE / WATER (PLANT)	888
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(11) PKar *doŋ ^B HIT HARD (with a fist)	875	(2) PTB *dam CHOOSE	888
(12) PTB *g-(y/r)a:p FAN / WINNOW / PADDLE / WAVE (v.) / BEAT / THRASH	875	(3) PTB *s-ril CHOOSE / FASTIDIOUS	888
(12a) PTB *g-ya:p FAN / WINNOW / PADDLE / WAVE (v.)	875	(4) PTB *praw COLLAPSE	888
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(13) PKC *khe(e)n-I, *khenʔ-II HAMMER / HIT / STRIKE	876	(6) PKC *kaar PART / SEPARATE	888
(14) PKC *tsu(u)m-I, *tsumʔ-II POUND (with fist) / HIT / STRIKE	876	(7) PTani *pu PICK (FLOWER, FRUIT)	888
(15) NEIA *tsy(u/i)k HIT / KNOCK AGAINST	876	(8) PKC *law-I, *loʔ-II PICK (fruit) / PLUCK	889
(16) PTani *kuut PUNCH (DOWNWARD) WITH FIST	876	(9) PTani *tuw PICK UP	889
(17) PTB *soy GRAZE / ALMOST HIT / PASSING CLOSE	876	(10) PTK *fuɸ PICK UP	889
(18) PKC *khoŋŋ STRIKE / BANG / BEAT / THRESH / HIT	876	(11) PTB *s-g-ruk PICK UP	889
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	876	(12) PTB *d-kew SCRATCH	889
(19) PKC *suu-I, *suk-II POUND / HAMMER / PUNCH	876	(13) PTani *pan SEPARATE (verbal particle)	889
(20) PKC *kheenŋ-I, *kheen-II HIT (a target)	876	(14) PKC *da(l/n) SEPARATE	889
(21) PTani *bjək HIT (target)	877	(15) PTB *s-pak SEPARATE / DISMANTLE / COLLAPSE	889
(22) PL *m-kuk COLLIDE / BUTT AGAINST	877	<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	890
(23) PKC *thoŋ PUNCH / HIT	877	(16) PKC *khlai SEPARATE / REMOVE / TRANSFER	890
(24) PCC *veel-I, *velʔ-II BEAT / FIGHT	877	<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	890
(25) PTK *jap HIT / STRIKE	877	(17) PTB *pryak SEPARATE / SPLIT	890
(26) PTK *p ^h e SLAP	877	<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	891
(27) PTK *p ^h it HIT	877	(18) PKC *suan TRANSFER / REMOVE	891
(28) PCN *tam HIT / SLAP	877	6.11.0 Digging, excavation	891
(29) PCC *vual WALES / STRIPES (have from beating)	877	(1) PKC *khuar BORE / DIG UP / DRILL	891
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(2) PKC *ram DESTROY / ANNIHILATE / WASTE	877	(4) PKC *wuuy BURY	891
(3) PTB *s-pyak DESTROY / DESTROYED / RUINED	877	(5) PTani *rj(i/u) BURY	891
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(5) PKC *phelʔ LOOSEN / UNDERCUT / UNDO	877	(7) PKC *phuun BURY / COVER / IMMERGE	891
(6) PKC *kiir RETURN	878	<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	891
(7) PKC *looy RETURN / GO (home)	878	(8) PTB *(b/p)(i/u)p CONCEAL / HIDE / BURY	891
(8) PCC *triin RETURN / GO (home)	878	(9) PTB *klaw DIG OUT / WEED / HOE (v.)	891
(9) PTB *s-run STRUGGLE / PULL HARD / DEMOLISH	878	(10) PTB *r-(k/g)wa-t DIG UP / SCOOP OUT	892
(10) PKC *suut UNDO / UNTIE / WITHDRAW	878	<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	892
(11) PTB *prəy UNTIE	878	(11) PTB *tsaw DIG	892
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(12) PKC *hliit UNTIE / UNDO	878	(13) PTB *la:y DIG / HOE	893
(13) PKC *phoŋ UPROOT / UNLOOSE (v.t.)	878	(14) PTB *s/m-du DIG / HOE	893
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(1) PKC *khok-I, *khoʔ-II PEEL OFF / STRIP	878	(15) PCC *v(e/i)rʔ DRILL / BORE	894
(2) PTB *kayk STRIP / UNDESS / DISMANTLE	879	(16) PKC *wut-I, *wuʔ-II; *wit-I, *wiʔ-II DRILL / BORE / PIERCE	894
6.9.2 Carve, shave	879	(17) PTK *k ^h aj SCOOP OUT	894
(1) PTB *tsow-t PIERCE / THORN / PLANT (v.) / ERECT	879	(18) PCC *ruut-I, *ruʔ-II SCOOP UP / SCRAPE UP	894
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	879	(19) PTB *(t)sary SCOOP / DIP OUT	894
(2a) PTB *m-(d)z(y)u(:)k PIERCE / THORN / PLANT (v.) / ERECT	879	(20) PTani *(s/ʃ)uk SCOOP / LADLE (v.)	895
(2b) PTB *dz(y)ut PIERCE / THORN / PLANT (v.) / ERECT	880	(21) PTB *ku:k ɤ *kawk SHEAR / STRIP / PARE	895
(3) PKC *tay-I, *tayʔ-II ADZE (v.) / SHARP	880	(22) PCC *look-I, *loʔ-II SHOVEL / SCOOP / LADLE	895
(4) PKC *saay-I, *sayʔ-II CARVE	880	6.12.0 Throwing	895
(5) PKC *them CARVE / CHIP / SCRAPE	880	(1) PTB *b ^h ar ɤ *h ^h ar THROW (AWAY) / DIVORCE (A SPOUSE)	895
(6) PKC *foot JAB / PIERCE / STAB	880	(1a) PTB *bwar THROW AWAY / CAST / SOW / TOSS	895
(7) PKar *cu^ POINTED (as of needles), SHARP POINT	880	<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	895
(8) PKC *yum POINTED / SHARP	880	(1b) PTB *hwar THROW	895
(9) PTB *s-ryam SHARP	880	(2) PTani *čut ¹ CAST (spear)	895
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	880	(3) PKC *tshep-I, *tsheʔ-II THROW	895
(10) PTK *tsaan SHARP	881	(4) PTB *s/m-ba ɤ *s/m-bay THROW	895
(11) PTB *m-tak SHARP	881	(5) PCC *hlo(o)n-I, *hlonʔ-II THROW / DISCARD	896
(12) PTani *rat ¹ SHARP(EDGED)	881	6.13.0 Convergence	896
(13) PTani *nuuk STAB	882	(1) PTB *g/l-t(y)ap FOLD / REPEAT / LAYER / PILE UP	896
(14) PKC *tshun-I, *tshunʔ-II STAB / PRICK / PIERCE	882	<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	897
(15) PLB *m-dzy(u/i)t TEAR / RIP	882	(2) PTani *pu WRAP UP IN A BUNDLE	897
(16) TGTm *^dzo point	882	<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	897
6.9.3 Chop, slice	882	(3) PTB *pun WRAP / COVER / WEAR	897
(1) PKC *khlenŋ-I, *khlenʔ-II AMPUTATE / CUT OFF	882	(4) PTB *s-ki:(l/r) BEND / WIND / TWIST / ROLL / CORNER	897
(2) PTK *du CHOP	882	<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	898
(3) PTB *ts(y)ap CHOP	882	(5) PTB *r-tul ROLL UP / WRAP	898
(4) PKC *saat CHOP / CUT / STRIKE	882	(6) PKC *ʰuun WRAP / PACK / BUNDLE	898
(5) PKC *kak CRACK / REND / SPLIT	883	(7a) PTB *(g/k)wap HATCH / INCUBATE / COVER	898
(6) PTK *tat CUT (VEGETABLES)	883	<i>Chinese comparanda</i>	899
(7) PTK *kak CUT (WOOD)	883	(7b) PTB *ʔup COVER / INCUBATE / HATCH	899
(8) PTani *giat ² CUT (as in reaping crops)	883	(7c) PTB *klup COVER / WRAP	900
(9) PTani *pa CUT (e.g. with machete)	883	(8) PKC *merʔ TWIST / PINCH / SQUEEZE	900
(10) PTB *tsyat CUT OFF / SEVER / BREAK	883	(9) PKC *deʔ SQUASH / PRESS	900
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	884	(10) PKC *(b/p)uum HEAP / COLLECT	900
(11) PTB *dan CUT	884	(11) PKC *tel PARTICIPATE / INCLUDE / JOIN	900
<i>Chinese comparandum</i>	884	(12) PKC *nen-I, *nenʔ-II PRESS / PRESS DOWN / SIT UPON	900
(12) PTB *hak CUT	884		

(13) PKC *hmet-I, *hmeʔ-II PRESS / KNEAD / MASSAGE	900
(14) PKC *wuum HEAP / PILE (v.)	900
(15) PTB *ḡra-k/ḡ MEET	900
Chinese comparandum	901
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(17) PKC *hloom WRAP / COVER	901
(18) PTB *k/g-r(u/i)m MEET	901
(19) PCC *beṅ COMPRESS / PRESS DOWN / CROWD	901
(20) PCC *ʔua(m/p) CONFINED / HOT	901
(21) PTK *loj ROLL (in a roll)	901
(22) PTB *pil FOLD	901
(23) PTB *m-prat MEET	901
(24) PTB *tuk ≈ *(t/d)wa(k/ḡ) MEET	901
Chinese comparandum	902
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Chinese comparandum	903
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Chinese comparandum	903
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(3) PTB *grak CORD / TIE / BIND	903
Chinese comparandum	903
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(5) PTB *(t/d)u-n/t JOIN / TIE / KNOT / BRING TOGETHER / ASSEMBLE / FOLD	903
Chinese comparandum	903
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(7) PKar *cəŋ^ TIE (a string)	904
(8) PCN *m-tshə TIE (v.)	904
(9) PTK *su TIE	904
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(11) PTB *(g/k)(y)i(t/k) TIE / BIND	904
Chinese comparandum	904
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(13) PNungic *pyi(n/t) UNTIE / LOOSEN	904
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(3) PKC *ḡeel-I, *ḡelʔ-II ATTACH / ADHERE / APPEND	904
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Chinese comparandum	905
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(2) PKC *yom JOIN / CONNECT / LINK	905
(3) PCC *khaaṅ-I, *khaan-II SPAN (v.) / BRIDGE ACROSS	905
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(1) PTB *ryaw MIX	905
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(4) PTB *tsuk ≈ *tsik BUILD	906
Chinese comparandum	907
(5) PCN *ʃa:n GATHER / ASSEMBLE (of people)	907
(6) PTK *sun JOIN	907
(7) PTB *tsyap JOIN / CONNECT	907
Chinese comparandum	907
(8) PTB *s-dza-k JOIN / CONNECT / BUILD	907
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(2) PKC *phuak-I, *phuəʔ-II COMPOSE / NAME (v.) / MAKE UP	908
(3) PKC *phu(n/t) ERECT / PITCH / PLANT (v.) / POST	908
(4) PKC *ser FORGE / MAKE	908
(5) PKC *siam MAKE / CREATE	908
(6) PCC *vuy PRODUCE (v.)	908
(7) PTani *ten REPAIR	908
(8) PTB *glan REPAIR / MEND	908
Chinese comparandum	908
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Chinese comparandum	910
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Chinese comparandum	913
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(24) PKar *Jim^ SQUEEZE / MASSAGE	914
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Chinese comparandum	914
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(2) PTB *s-ryan EQUAL / PLACE IN A ROW / ALIGN / ROW	915
Chinese comparandum	915
(3) PKC *ḡat-I, *ḡaʔ-II HANG / HANG UP	915
(4) PKC *suan LAY OUT (dead person)	915
(5) PTB *hwaṅ PUT	915
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Chinese comparandum	916
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Chinese comparandum	1014
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Chinese comparandum	1018
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Chinese comparandum	1019
(9) PTani *(t/d)ur BREAK (st. stiff with hand)	1019
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(11) PTK *kaj BREAK	1019
(12) PTK *tlek BREAK	1019
(13) PCN *tjak BREAK	1019
(14) NEIA *pʷak BURST	1019
Chinese comparandum	1019
(15) PTK *wet BURST	1019
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(17) PKC *toop CEASE / END / STOP	1019
(18) PKC *diʔ CEASE / FINISH / VANISH	1019
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(25) PKC *kuuy DROOP	1020
(26) PKC *khlep DROOP	1020
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Chinese comparandum	1021
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(33) PTani *pu GRIND (SHARPEN)	1021
(34) PKC *rial GRIND / CRUSH / GNASH	1021
(35) PTB *s-ryut GROW WORSE / INFERIOR / FALLEN	1021
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(37) PCC *zual INTENSIFY / INCREASE	1021
(38) PKC *ʔew LEAN BACK	1021
(39) PTani *j(i/e)t MELT	1021
(40) PTB *s/m-gray MELT	1021
(41) PKC *tuy MELT / LIQUEFY	1022
(42) PKC *raaw PALE / DISCOLORED	1022
(43) PTB *s-nyak PULVERIZE / SHATTER / DIMINUTIVE	1022
(44) PCC *leet RENEGE / ALTER / CHANGE	1022
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(46) PKC *diim REST / END	1022
(47) PTB *zya:w ⋈ *zyu(w) ROT / DECAY / DIGEST	1022
Chinese comparandum	1022
(48) PKC *mua(t/n) ROT / FESTER / BRITTLE	1022
(49) PTani *janj ROT / ROTTEN	1023
(50) PTB *pwa(n/t) RUB OFF / GRIND	1023
(51) PTB *g/s-rip SHADE / SHADOW	1023
(52) PKC *tson SHRINK / CONTRACT	1023
(53) PKC *m-hew SPOILED / WASTE(D)	1023
(54) PTB *p-(r/y)an SPREAD (wide) / STRETCH OUT	1023
Chinese comparandum	1024
(55) PTani *pruʔ SPREAD OUT (e.g. bedding)	1024
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Chinese comparandum	1024
(57) PTB *yarj SPREAD / EXTEND / SAIL	1024
(58) PKC *phaʔ SPREAD / STRETCH	1024
Chinese comparandum	1024
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(60) PTK *haaw START	1025
(61) PCC *thok-I, *-thoʔ-II START / BEGIN / COMMENCE	1025
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(63) PCC *reʔ STOP / CEASE / END	1025
(64) PTani *jonj STRETCH ONESELF	1025
(65) PTB *tsyan ⋈ *dzyan STRETCH OUT	1025
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(67) PTB *s-myak VANISH / GET LOST	1026
(68) PKC *huut VAPORIZE / GILD	1026
(69) PTB *(d/t)wan WRINKLE / SHRINK	1026

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(4) PTB *g-sal CLEAR / BRIGHT / PLEASANT	1027
Chinese comparandum	1027
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(6) PTani *d-rek CLEAN	1027
(7) PCC *faay CLEAN	1027
(8) PTK *t^er CLEAN	1027
(9) PKC *θiaŋ-I, *θian-II CLEAR / LEGIBLE	1027
(10) PTB *(t)s(y)anj CLEAR / PURE / CLEAN	1027
Chinese comparandum	1028
(11) PKC *klaw DURABLE / LASTING	1028
(12) PTK *nak FINE, BE	1028
(13) PTB *pra GOOD	1028
(14) PTB *s-na GOOD	1029
(15) PTB *s-nam GOOD	1029
(16a) PTB *m-tyak/ŋ ⋈ *tik/ŋ GOOD / VERY / REAL / STRAIGHT	1029
Chinese comparandum	1030
(16b) PTB *l(y)a(k/ŋ) GOOD / BEAUTIFUL	1030
Chinese comparandum	1030
(17) PKC *suŋ PRECIOUS / RARE	1030
(18) PTB *pəw PRICE	1030
Chinese comparandum	1032
(19) PCC *hlook PROFITABLE / WORTHY	1032
(20) PCN *zak- QUICK / QUICKLY	1032
(21) PKC *muaj-I, *muaj-II SAFE / SECURE	1032
(22) PCC *him SAFE / UNHARMED / UNDAMAGED	1032
(23) PCC *rem SUITABLE / CONGRUOUS / PROPER	1032
(24) PKC *θiim TRANSPARENT / CLEAR / WISE	1032
(25) PNN *Ç-jinj TRUE	1032
(26) PCC *mak UNUSUAL / WONDERFUL	1032
(27) PKC *klaak WORTHY / ACCEPTABLE	1032
(28) PKC *phuu WORTHY / EXPEDIENT	1032
(29) PKC *daay CALM / COOL / QUIET / SILENT	1032
(30) PTB *ta:p ⋈ *m-daw CAPABLE / FIT / BEAUTIFUL	1032
(31) PKC *θiŋ-I, *θin-II CLEVER / CLEAR / WISE	1032
(32) PKC *taay-maa DILIGENT / ACTIVE	1033
(33) PTB *dam HEALTHY / WELL	1033
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(5) PCC *ŋoŋ DULL / STUPID	1033
(6) PKC *khel FALSE / WICKED	1033
(7) PKC *huay HAUNTED / DANGEROUS	1033
(8) PKC *tsham LACK / INCOMPLETE / SHORT OF	1033
(9) PTB *grwal OVERBEARING / EXPLOITATIVE	1034
(10) PKC *mool PLAIN / DULL / STUPID / SIMPLE	1034
(11) PTB *d-b(u/i)l POOR	1034
Chinese comparandum	1034
(12) PKC *ŋal ⋈ *hŋal RUDE / OVERBEARING / PRESUMPTUOUS	1034
(13) PCC *ral RUINED / DESTROYED	1034
(14) PTK *tep SLOW	1034
(15) PKar *jiᵇ STINGY	1034
(16) PTK *nir WRINKLE	1034
(17) PKar *g/k-hmaᵇ WRONG / MISTAKE / ERROR	1034
(18) PTK *jon WRONG, BE	1034

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(2) PTani *mjonj-maŋ BUSY	1034
(3) PKC *ɸuay BUSY / BUSTLE / CONFUSED / DISTURB	1034
(4) PTB *b-rut MISCHIEVOUS / ROWDY / HOOLIGAN	1035

9.7.1 Shape and size	1035
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(2) PKC *nuay FRAGMENT / PIECE / COIN	1035
(3) PKC *klaŋ LUMP / CLOD / SOLID (thing)	1035
(4) PKC *yool OBLONG / OVAL (figure)	1035
(5) PKar *thuᵇNᵇ POLE	1035
(6) PTB *s/m-kwar ROUND	1035
Chinese comparandum	1035
(7) PKC *bial ROUND / CIRCLE	1035
(8) PKC *tia SIZE	1035
(9) PCC *ʔaay STACK (n.) / PILE (n.)	1035
(10) PTB *sap WEDGE	1035
Chinese comparandum	1036

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Chinese comparandum	1037
(1a) PTB *(b/p) a(n/t) THIN	1037
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(2a) PTB * s-lum ROUND	1037
(2b) PTB * b-lum EYE / EYEBALL / HEART / ROUND OBJECT	1038
(2c) PTB * m-lu(ŋ/m) HEART / ROUND	1039
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Chinese comparandum	1042
(4) PTB * maŋ BIG / ELDER (BROTHER, UNCLE) / OLD	1042
Chinese comparandum	1043
(5) PTB * t(y)u(ŋ/n) SHORT	1043
Chinese comparandum	1044
(6) PTB * ta-y BIG	1044
Chinese comparandum	1045
(7) PTB * dəw SHORT	1045
Chinese comparandum	1046
(8) PTB * tu:k THICK / DEEP	1046
Chinese comparandum	1046
(9) PTB * low LONG / TALL	1046
(10) PTani * bjuŋ THICK (e.g. book)	1046
(11) NEIA * m-ya BROAD / WIDE	1047
(12) PTB * s-ŋ(i/u)ŋ SHORT	1047
(13) PTani * ruŋ DEEP	1047
(14) PTB *(p/b) ay ENCIRCLED / RINGED / STRIPED	1047
(15) PTB *(d/t) uŋ LONG / LENGTH	1047
(16) PTani * bV-čor SHALLOW / THIN (paper)	1047
(17) PKC * saaw LONG	1048
(18) PTani * gar CROOKED	1048
(19) PTani * suŋ GROW (v.i.)	1048
(20) PTB * m(y)ap SHORT	1048
(21) PKar * joʔ^p DEEP	1048
(22) PKar * thaw^h LONG / TALL / HIGH	1048
(23) PKar * phə^h SHORT / LOW	1048
(24) PKC * lian-II , * lianʔ-II BIG / LARGE	1048
(25) PKar * ʔdo^h BIG / LARGE	1048
(26) PTB *(t/d) ow-n THICK	1048
Chinese comparandum	1049
(27) PTB * z(y)əy LITTLE / SMALL / TINY	1049
Chinese comparandum	1049
(28) PKC * pum ROUND / SPHERICAL	1049
(29) PTB * ku(:)m ARCHED / VAULTED / CONCAVE / CONVEX	1049
(30) PKC * tsom SHORT / SHRINK	1049
(31) PKC * tshi(i)ŋ-I , * tshi(i)n-II SHORT	1049
(32) PTB * wal ROUND / CIRCULAR	1049
Chinese comparanda	1050
(33) PKC * tom RETRACTED / CONTRACTED	1050
(34) PKC * ʰaa-I , * ʰaat-II SMALL	1050
(35) PKC * sooy-I , * soyʔ-II CROOKED / ASKEW / WRY	1050
(36) PKC * s^hay LONG	1050
(37) PTB * s-grum CONTRACTED / STUNTED / DWARFISH	1050
(38) PNC * ḡeem CIRCULAR / ROUND	1050
(39) PTK * ŋum ROUND	1050
(40) PTK * saŋ LONG	1050
(41) PNC * neew SMALL	1050
(42) PTK * kaw THIN	1051
(43) PTK * hak BIG	1051
(44) PTK * k^hej CROOKED	1051
(45) PTK * ʃu SHORT	1051
(46) PKar * ʔdwaIN^h THICK	1051
(47) PCN * ʒa[:]n or * ʒən GROW	1051
(48) PTB * s-r(i)uŋ LONG / ELONGATE	1051
(49) PKar * ʔjen^h NARROW	1052
(50) PTB *(g/k) a:(r/l) SOLID / CONGEALED / FROZEN / VISCOUS / STRONG	1052
Chinese comparandum	1053
(51) PrGy * jak THICK (and flat)	1053
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頭懸梁，錐刺股
Tóu xuán liáng, zhūi cì gǔ.
Hanging our hair from roof-beams,
pricking our thighs with awls.*

*This expression refers to the study practices of two celebrated young scholars: *Sūn Jīng* 孫敬 of the Han Dynasty would tie his hair to a roof-beam to avoid dozing off, while *Sū Qín* 蘇秦 of the Warring States period would keep himself awake by pricking his thigh with an awl. Both later had distinguished careers. At STEDT we have been inspired by their example.

Preface

As the STEDT project was nearing the end of its 28-year run in 2014-15, we became more and more preoccupied with trying to figure out how best to preserve and disseminate our databases and etymologies. Obviously there would be no point in contemplating a printout of the more than 500,000 records in our main lexical database. On the other hand, it did not seem beyond the realm of possibility to prepare a printed version of our nearly 6000 etymologies, presenting our reconstructions along with their “supporting forms” from individual Tibeto-Burman languages and Chinese.

This latter idea was put forth with the greatest persuasiveness by J.B. Lowe, who felt that the STEDT project owed it to the scholarly community and the general public to make available a tangible snapshot of our latest etymological thinking as the project came to a close. To demonstrate the feasibility of this idea, J.B. contacted the UC Berkeley Library Bindery, which produced a handsomely bound draft version of the etymologies that came to two folio volumes totaling 1,137 pages.

Meanwhile my main concern was to revise or “rectify” all the etymologies before they were enshrined in print, paying special attention to the numerous weakly attested roots (“WAR’s”) among them. I carried out this “WARfare” to the best of my ability over a period of several months, with the indispensable assistance of a succession of talented Stedtniks who navigated me through the labyrinth of our lexical and etymological databases.

Finally we have had to call a halt. This printed version accurately represents my latest thinking, but I have no illusions that every detail of my analyses will stand the test of time. It is my hope that some way will be found to periodically update and expand both the electronic and printed versions of our lexical database and our etymologies. In any case, a limited run of the present 2-volume printed version is now available at the relatively modest price of \$250. To order a copy, please email me at *matisoff@berkeley.edu*.

United in zeal for TB/ST studies,

James A. Matisoff Berkeley, June 2015

Introduction

History of the STEDT Project

The great Sino-Tibetan language family, comprising both Chinese and Tibeto-Burman (TB),¹ is comparable in time-depth and internal diversity to Indo-European, and equally important in the context of world civilization. The overwhelming cultural and numerical predominance of Chinese is counterbalanced by the sheer number of languages (some 250–300) in the rest of the family.

After the existence of the Tibeto-Burman family was posited in the mid-19th century, British scholars, missionaries, and colonial administrators in India and Burma began to study some of the dozens of little-known “tribal” languages of the region that seemed to be genetically related to the two major literary languages, Tibetan and Burmese. This early work was collected in the monumental *Linguistic Survey of India* (Grierson 1903–28), three sections of which (Vol. III, Parts 1, 2, 3) are devoted to wordlists and brief texts from TB languages.

Further significant progress in TB studies had to wait until the late 1930’s, when the eccentric amateur comparativist Robert Shafer headed a Depression-era project called “Sino-Tibetan Linguistics”, sponsored by the eminent anthropologist A.L. Kroeber of U.C. Berkeley.² With admirable thoroughness, the project staff assembled all the lexical material then available on TB languages, enabling Shafer to venture a detailed subgrouping of the family at different taxonomic levels, called (from higher to lower) divisions, sections, branches, units, languages, and dialects. This work was finally published piecemeal in a two-volume, five-part opus called *Introduction to Sino-Tibetan* (1966–74).

Shafer’s junior collaborator Paul K. Benedict based his own work on the same body of material as Shafer, but achieved much more usable results. In an unpublished manuscript entitled *Sino-Tibetan: a Conspectus* (ca. 1942–43; henceforth *STC*), Benedict adopted a more modest approach to supergrouping and subgrouping than Shafer, stressing that many TB languages had so far resisted precise classification. While Shafer had included Tai in Sino-Tibetan, Benedict (1942a) banished it from the family altogether, relating Tai instead to Austronesian.³ Shafer’s pioneering work, valuable as it was, suffered from his mistrust of phonemics, with a consequent proliferation of pseudo-precise and arcane phonetic symbols. Benedict’s structural insight, his flair for isolating that which is crucial from masses of data, enabled him to formulate sound correspondences with greater precision, and to distinguish between regular and exceptional phonological developments.

The publication of a revised and heavily annotated version of *STC* in 1972, with J. Matisoff as contributing editor, laid the foundations for modern Sino-Tibetan historical/comparative linguistics. In this recension, nearly 700 Proto-Tibeto-Burman (PTB) roots were reconstructed (494 of them in numbered cognate sets, with about 200 more scattered throughout the text and footnotes), as well as some 325 comparisons of PTB roots with Old Chinese etyma, largely as reconstructed in Karlgren 1957 (*Grammata Serica Recensa*, henceforth *GSR*). While Benedict focused principally on five key, phonologically conservative TB languages (Tibetan, Burmese, Lushai [= Mizo], Kachin [= Jingpho], Garo), he also used data from more than 100 others, judiciously making allowances for inadequacies of transcription where necessary.⁴ How well has *STC* stood the test of time? The short answer is: remarkably well. The work has been reviewed about 15 times, almost always in a highly favorable tone,⁵ and has been translated into Chinese.⁶ In fact nearly all 700 of the TB cognate sets in *STC* have been shown to be perfectly valid, though many of the reconstructions have had to be changed slightly in the light of new data, and in a couple of cases etyma which had been reconstructed separately have been shown to be variant forms (“allofams”) of the same word-family.⁷

Despite its brilliance, however, the *Conspectus* is notoriously difficult to use, largely due to its complex apparatus of footnotes, which often (especially in the Chinese section) occupy more of the page than the text itself. These notes include Benedict’s original ones from the 1940’s, as well as those he and I added before publication in 1972. Some 200 valid etymologies are squirreled away in these convoluted notes, but they also contain a number of errors, unsubstantiated speculations, and over-complications.

Benedict himself realized the limitations of the data he had to work with, and never intended *STC* to be more than an overview or “conspectus” of its vast subject. Neither did he structure it as a practical handbook which systematically tabulated the sound correspondences among the major languages of the family at all canonical points of the syllable. (Such information is certainly extractable from the terse but labyrinthine pages of *STC*, but at the cost of considerable labor.) Towards the end of his life, which ended tragically in a car accident on July 21, 1997, Benedict does seem to have felt the need to embark on such a systematic project, although it never actually got off the ground.

After the publication of the *Conspectus*, further progress in intra-TB and TB/Chinese comparison seemed to depend on multiplying the number of reliably reconstructed etyma, as well as systematizing and refining the methodological underpinnings of the reconstructions. In the mid-1970’s, when I was attempting to apply the principles of glottochronology in order to subgroup the TB family, the very first item of “basic vocabulary” that I looked at happened to be ‘belly / stomach’. Much to my initial dismay, I quickly found that it was futile to use a simple wordlist to try to subgroup a family as complex and ramified as TB. In fact it was impossible even to deal in isolation with a single point in semantic space; etyma with the meaning ‘belly’ or ‘stomach’ spilled over into concepts like ‘cave / hole’, ‘swelling’, ‘calf of leg’, ‘liver’, ‘guts’, etc. I became preoccupied with notions of semantic variability, semantic fields, and the field of bodypart nomenclature in particular. At the same time I could not help noticing the morphophonic variations displayed by almost every etymon previously or newly reconstructed. Instead of guiltily sweeping these variational phenomena under the rug, I began to revel in them. In *Variational Semantics in Tibeto-Burman* (Matisoff 1978b, henceforth *VSTB*) I set out to establish an explicit methodology for handling phonosemantic variation in word families, introducing the notion of “allofams” and a notation for diagramming patterns of semantic association (“metastatic flowcharts”). In those pre-computer days, I naturally had to assemble my data by hand, copying out bodypart words from dictionaries and sorting them into synonym sets on filecards, then grouping them into putative cognate sets. The older sources used by Shafer and Benedict were supplemented by an ever-increasing volume of new material in the 1970’s and 1980’s, much of it from post-Cultural Revolution China, but also from India, Nepal, and Thailand. It eventually became apparent that the job of digesting these massive amounts of new and old data would be vastly facilitated by the use of computers. The hitch was my own ignorance of computer technology beyond the level of simple word-processing. Fortunately I somehow got the idea of applying to federal granting agencies for a longterm project to create a computerized etymological dictionary of Tibeto-Burman / Sino-Tibetan based on semantic principles, i.e. an etymological thesaurus.⁸ In 1987, the Sino-Tibetan Etymological Dictionary and Thesaurus Project (STEDT) got under way, funded jointly by the National Science Foundation and the National Endowment for the Humanities. Thanks to the efforts of a succession of computer-savvy graduate students (see the *Acknowledgments*), a massive lexical database of forms from over 250 TB languages and dialects has been created, mostly of bodypart terminology at first, but then extending to all the other areas of the lexicon. It has been a race between the vertiginous progress of computer technology (when we started in the Pleistocene, 1987, we were using Mac Pluses!) and our ever-expanding needs for disk capacity, memory, and operating speed. The hard-won experience gained at the STEDT project has inspired similar lexical database projects in the U.S. and abroad.

Original Plan of STEDT

It was originally planned to publish the *Sino-Tibetan Etymological Dictionary and Thesaurus* as a series of printed volumes, each containing full details on all the etymologies in a given semantic area, starting with bodyparts and then proceeding to animal names, natural objects, verbs of motion, and all the rest of the lexicon:

^[1]Some scholars, especially in China, consider Sino-Tibetan to include the Tai-Kadai (TK) and Hmong-Mien (HM) (= Miáo-Yáo) language families as well. While there is definitely a striking typological similarity among Chinese, TK, and HM, this is undoubtedly due to prolonged ancient contact rather than genetic relationship.

^[2]For a readable and humorous account of this project, see Benedict 1975b.

^[3]To this putative megalolinguistic grouping, later to include Hmong-Mien and Japanese as well as Tai-Kadai and Austrone-sian, Benedict gave the name “Austro-T(h)ai” (see Benedict 1975a, 1990).

^[4]Peiros & Starostin (1996) followed Benedict’ s example in their choice of key TB languages, basing their Sino-Tibetan reconstructions on Written Tibetan, Written Burmese, Lushai, Jingpho, and Chinese, all of which are treated as if they belonged on the same taxonomic level. See the discussion in Handel (1998, Ch. 3).

^[5]A notable exception is the intemperate review by Miller (1974), which bitterly criticizes the fact that the notes added in 1972 sometimes modify points made in the original text (ca. 1942). See the defense of *STC* against Miller’s attack by Matisoff (1975a).

^[6]See LE Saiyue & LUO Meizhen 1984.

^[7]E.g. ***dyam** ⇕ ***tyam** [*STC* #226] ‘full; fill’ and ***dyam** [*STC* #227] ‘straight’ ; see Matisoff (1988b).

^[8]The shining example of an etymological thesaurus in the field of Indo-European is Carl Darling Buck’s *A Dictionary of Selected Synonyms in the Principal Indo-European Languages* (1949).

Volume I: <i>Body Parts</i>
Volume II: <i>Animals</i>
Volume III: <i>Natural Objects, Plants, Foods</i>
Volume IV: <i>Kinship Terms, Ethnonyms, Social Roles</i>
Volume V: <i>Culture, Artifacts, Religion</i>
Volume VI: <i>Verbs of Motion, of Manipulation, and of Production</i>
Volume VII: <i>Adjectival Verbs</i>
Volume VIII: <i>Abstract Nouns and Verbs, Psychological Verbs, Verbs of Utterance</i>
Volume IX: <i>Shape, Size, Color, Measure, Number, Time, Space</i>
Volume X: <i>Grammatical words</i>

The sheer amount of the etymologizable data soon made it clear that this was unrealistic, and that each projected volume of STEDT would have to be split up into smaller units or “fascicles”, e.g. in the case of *Body Parts* into ten subdivisions, as follows:

- Body (general)*
- Head and Face*
- Mouth and Throat*
- Torso*
- Limbs, Joints, and Body Measures*
- Diffuse Organs*
- Internal Organs*
- Secretions and Somatophonics*⁹
- Reproductive System*

Every subpart and sub-subpart of the lexicon expanded and bloomed into a major project.

I decided to start with the reproductive system, not only because of its prurient interest but also because it seemed like the point of departure for all things. Accordingly a printed manuscript of some 480 pages was produced in 1997–98, called *Sino-Tibetan Etymological Dictionary and Thesaurus, Volume I: Bodyparts, Fascicle 1: The Reproductive System*, containing 286 pages of forms assembled into 174 cognate sets, divided into nine chapters: (1) Egg, (2) Birth, (3) Navel, (4) Breast, (5) Vagina, (6) Womb, (7) Penis, (8) Copulate, (9) Body Fluids. As part of the front matter, I put together a 60 page essay on the initial consonants and consonant clusters of Proto-Tibeto-Burman.

As it turned out, perhaps fortunately, that introductory essay soon took on a teratoid life of its own, and became an example of what one might call in Proto-Tibeto-Burman

*kʷəy	lətak	rəməy	gəya:p	way
dog	ACC	tail	wag	COP/NOM

or “the tail wagging the dog”.¹⁰ Was I not responsible for dealing with the whole proto-syllable, not just the initial consonants? I delayed publication of the “Reproductive Fascicle” until I could get the whole job done.¹¹ Eventually, the “introductory essay”, then entitled *System and Philosophy of Tibeto-Burman Reconstruction*, grew to become *Handbook of Proto-Tibeto-Burman* (Matisoff 2003a, henceforth *HPTB*).

The phonological approach of *HPTB* is complementary to the main thrust of the STEDT project, which is semantically organized.

The ST/TB Family in its Areal Context

Typological diversity of TB: Indosphere and Sinosphere

The TB family, which extends over a huge geographic range, is characterized by great typological diversity, comprising languages that range from the highly tonal, monosyllabic, analytic type with practically no affixational morphology (e.g. Loloish), to marginally tonal or atonal languages with complex systems of verbal agreement morphology (e.g. the Kiranti group of E. Nepal). While most TB languages are verb-final, the Karenic and Baic branches are SVO, like Chinese.

This diversity is partly to be explained in terms of areal influence from Chinese on the one hand, and Indo-Aryan languages on the other. It is convenient to refer to the Chinese and Indian spheres of cultural influence as the “Sinosphere” and the “Indosphere”.¹² Some languages and cultures are firmly in one or the other: e.g. the Munda and Khasi branches of Austroasiatic, the TB languages of Nepal, and much of the Northeast Indian branch of TB (notably Meithei = Manipuri) are Indospheric; while the Hmong-Mien family, the Kam-Sui branch of Kadai, the Loloish branch of TB, and Vietnamese (Mon-Khmer) are Sinospheric. Others (e.g. Thai and Tibetan) have been influenced by both Chinese and Indian culture at different historical periods. Still other linguistic communities are so remote geographically that they have escaped significant influence from either cultural tradition (e.g. the Aslian branch of Mon-Khmer in Malaya, or the Nicobarese branch of Mon-Khmer in the Nicobar Islands of the Indian Ocean).

Elements of Indian culture, especially ideas of kingship, religions (Hinduism/Brahminism, Buddhism), and *devanāgarī* writing systems, began to penetrate both insular and peninsular Southeast Asia about 2000 years ago. Indic writing systems were adopted first by Austronesians (Javanese and Cham) and Austroasiatics (Khmer and Mon), then by Tai (Siamese and Lao) and Tibeto-Burmans (Pyu, Burmese, and Karen). The learned components of the vocabularies of Khmer, Mon, Burmese, and Thai/Lao consist of words of Pali/Sanskrit origin. Indian influence also spread north to the Himalayan region. Tibetan has used *devanāgarī* writing since A.D. 600, but has preferred to calque new religious and technical vocabulary from native morphemes rather than borrowing Indic ones.

What is now China south of the Yangtze did not have a considerable Han Chinese population until the beginning of the current era (Ramsey 1987; Norman 1988). In early times the scattered Chinese communities of the region must have been on a numerical and cultural par with the coterritorial non-Chinese populations, with borrowing of material culture and vocabulary proceeding in all directions (Benedict 1975a; MEI Tsu-lin & Norman 1976; Sagart 1990). As late as the end of the first millennium A.D., non-Chinese states flourished on the periphery of the Middle Kingdom (Nanchao and Bai in Yunnan, Xixia (Tangut) in the Gansu/Qinghai/Tibet border regions, Lolo (Yi) chieftaincies in Sichuan. The Mongol Yuan dynasty finally consolidated Chinese power south of the Yangtze in the 13th century. Tibet also fell under Mongol influence then, but did not come under complete Chinese control until the 18th century.

Whatever their genetic affiliations, the languages of the East and SE Asian area have undergone massive convergence in all areas of their structure—phonological, grammatical, and semantic.¹³ Hundreds of words have crossed over genetic boundaries in the course of millennia of intense language contact, so that it is often exceedingly difficult to distinguish ancient loans from genuine cognates.

Scope and subgrouping of the TB family

The exact number of TB languages is impossible to determine, not only because of the elusiveness of the distinction between “languages” and “dialects”, and the fact that a number of languages remain to be discovered and/or described, but especially because of the profusion and confusion of different names for the same language.¹⁴ At the present state of our knowledge we can estimate that the Tibeto-Burman family contains approximately 440 languages, which may be broken down into population categories as indicated in Figure 1.

According to Ethnologue estimates, there are twelve Tibeto-Burman languages with over a million speakers: Burmese, Nuosu (Yi/Lolo), Amdo Tibetan, Meit(h)ei (= Manipuri), S’gaw Karen, Khams Tibetan, Bodo, Eastern Tamang, Central Tibetan, Eastern Pwo Karen, Garo, and Rakhine. Though care has obviously been taken to obtain the most reliable data, such figures can often be quite misleading, since ethnic identity and linguistic competence do not always coincide: of the 8 million people who identify themselves as Tujia, only about 70,000 can actively use the Tujia language, the rest having shifted to Chinese (Lewis *et al.* 2014). Designations like *Yi* and *Karen* actually apply to large numbers of related

^[9]By “somatophonics” I mean sneezes, belches, farts, and the like.

^[10]The presence of the accusative particle *lətak is motivated by the semantic anomalousness of this phrase, which has also caused the fronting of the object *kʷəy ‘dog’ to initial position.

^[11]It was later published as Matisoff 2008, henceforth *TBR*S.

^[12]See Matisoff 1990 (“On megalocomparison.”)

^[13]An excellent recent study of such phenomena is Thomason & Kaufman 1988.

^[14]See Matisoff 1986b, and STEDT Monograph #2 (Matisoff *et al.* 1996).

^[15]Based on Lewis *et al.* 2014.

<i>Number of Speakers</i>	<i>Number of Languages</i>
more than 1,000,000	12
500,000 – 999,999	13
250,000 – 499,999	15
100,000 – 249,999	41
50,000 – 99,999	37
25,000 – 49,999	52
10,000 – 24,999	82
fewer than 10,000	185

Figure 1: TB languages by number of speakers¹⁵

but often not mutually intelligible “dialects”, which might as well be called separate languages. At the bottom of the scale are some 185 languages with fewer than 10,000 speakers, many of which are highly endangered,¹⁶ to the point where children are no longer learning to speak them.

Although much of the geographical area covered by TB languages¹⁷ has been chronically inaccessible to fieldwork by scholars from outside, there has been an explosion of data in the past 25 years, especially from China¹⁸ and Nepal, but also increasingly from India and Burma.

Evolving notions of ST/TB subgrouping

Millennia of language contact due to migrations, intermarriage, and warfare have presented us what I have described as “an interlocking network of fuzzy-edged clots of languages, emitting waves of mutual influence from their various nuclear ganglia. A mess, in other words.”¹⁹ While subgrouping such a recalcitrant family is difficult, there is certainly no need to go so far as van Driem by denying that TB subgroups exist at all, or by claiming that even if they do exist, there are so many of them that there is no point in talking about them!²⁰

In the published version of *STC* (1972), P.K. Benedict wisely refrained from offering a pseudo-precise family-tree model of the higher-order taxonomic relationships in TB, presenting instead a schematic chart where Kachin (= Jingpho) was conceived as the center of geographical and linguistic diversity in the family. See Figure 2.

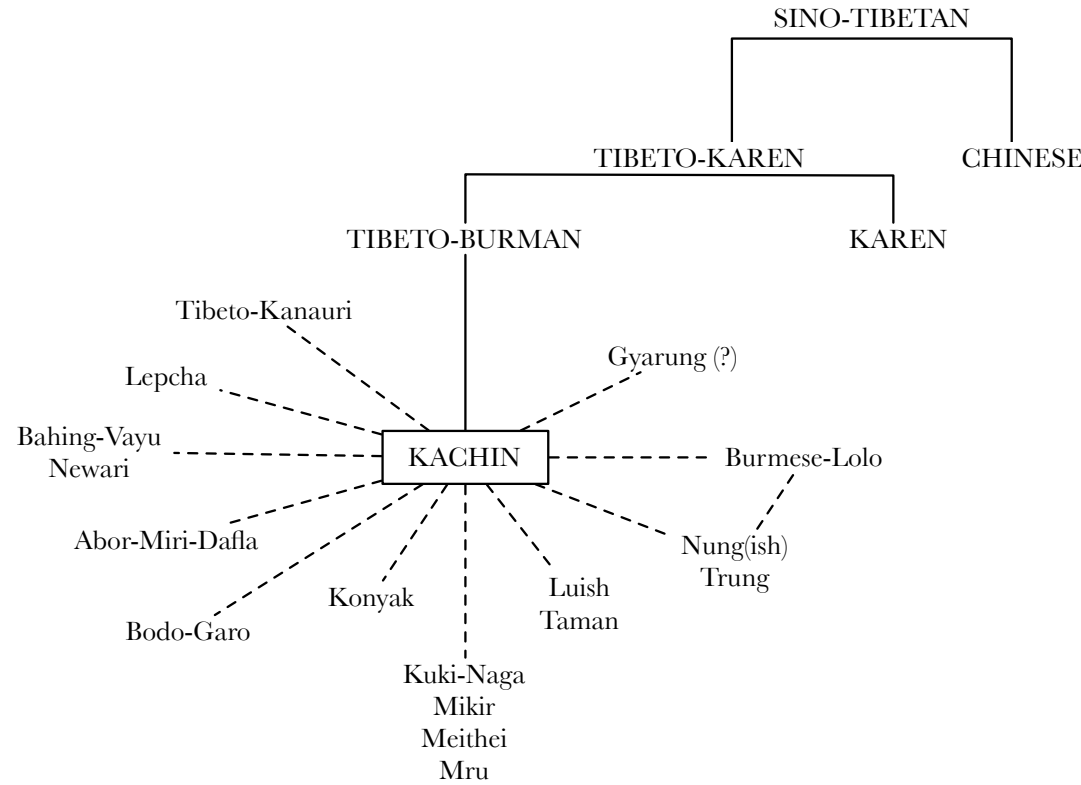


Figure 2: Schematic chart of Sino-Tibetan languages²¹

A simpler scheme was used heuristically at STEDT until very recently (see *HPTB*:5 and *TBR*S:xxix), as shown in Figure 3. It differed from *STC* in several respects:

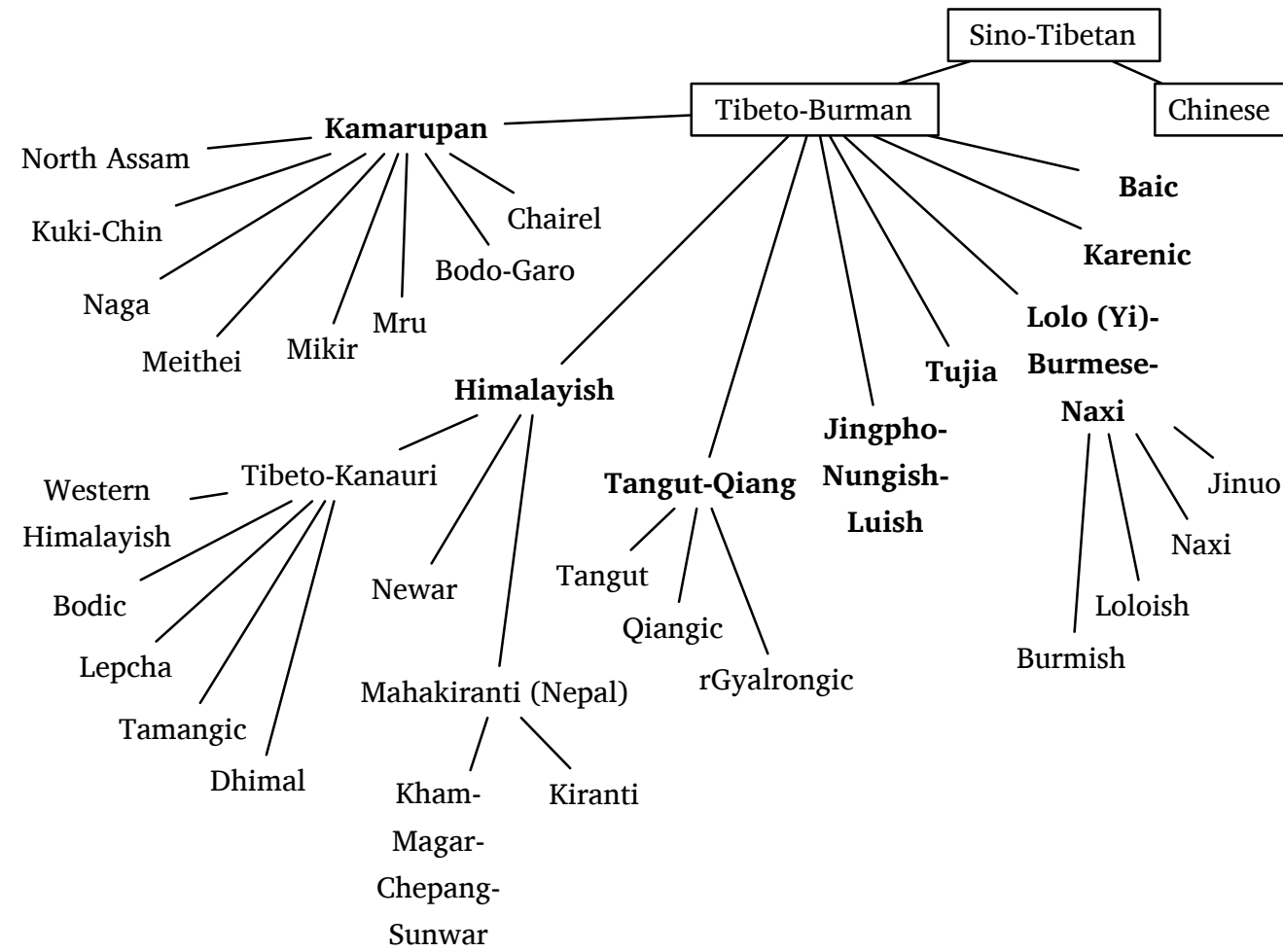


Figure 3: Previous STEDT family tree of ST languages

- Karenic is no longer regarded as having a special status, but is now considered to be a subgroup of TB proper.
- Baic, hardly mentioned (under the name “Minchia”) in *STC*, but later hypothesized by Benedict to belong with Chinese in the “Sinitic” branch of Sino-Tibetan, is now also treated as just another subgroup of TB, though one under particularly heavy Chinese contact influence. Both Karenic and Baic have SVO word order, unlike the rest of the TB family.
- The highly ramified Kuki-Chin and Naga groups were provisionally amalgamated with Bodo-Garo (= Barish) and Abor-Miri-Dafla (= Mirish) into a supergroup called by the purely geographical name of *Kamarupan*, from the old Sanskrit name for Assam.
- The important Tangut-Qiang languages (deemed to include rGyalrong [= Gyarung = Jiarong] and the extinct Xixia [= Tangut]) were hardly known to Western scholars at the time *STC* was written (ca. 1942–3) or published (1972). It seems doubtful that a special relationship exists between Qiangic and Jingpho, or between Qiangic and Lolo-Burmese, as some Chinese scholars maintain.²²
- The Nungish and Luish languages were grouped with Jingpho (= Kachin). Jingpho was also recognized to have a special contact relationship with the Northern Naga (= Konyak) group.²³

¹⁶See Matisoff 1991b.
¹⁷The approximate distribution of TB languages by primary country is as follows: India 133, China 133, Nepal 65, Burma 58, Bhutan 24, Bangladesh 18, Thailand 4, Laos 4, Vietnam 3 (Lewis *et al.* 2014).
¹⁸Among the most valuable of these new sources are Sun Hongkai, Xu Jufang *et al.* (1991), containing 1004 synonym sets in 52 languages and dialects; and Dai Qingxia and Huang Bufan (1992), with 1822 synonym sets in 50 languages and dialects.
¹⁹VSTB:2.
²⁰See his review (2003) of Thurgood & LaPolla 1984, *The Sino-Tibetan Languages*.
²¹Reproduced from *STC*, p. 6; VSTB, p. 3; *HPTB*, p. 4.
²²A supergroup called “Rung” was proposed by Thurgood (1984), into which he placed, among others, some Qiangic languages, Nungish, and Lepcha. This grouping was based partly on shared “proto-morphosyntax”, and partly on nomenclature, including the *-rong* of *rGyalrong*, the Nungish language *Rawang*, and the Lepcha autonym *Rong*.
²³The *Linguistic Survey of India* (Grierson, 1903–28) recognized a “Bodo-Naga-Kachin” group, an idea revived by Burling (1983), whose “Sal” supergroup comprises Bodo-Garo (Barish), Northern Naga (Konyak), and Jingpho (= Kachin). Burling’s name for this grouping is derived from the etymon *sal ‘sun’ (ult. < PTB *tsyar ‘sunshine’), one of a number of roots which is attested chiefly in these languages. See *HPTB*:393–4 and below.

- The somewhat idiosyncratic Mikir (Karbi), Meithei (= Manipuri), and Mru languages were included under Kamarupan.
- The Himalayish (= Himalayan) group is considered to include Bodic (i.e. Tibetanoid) languages, as well as Kanauri-Manchad, Tamang-Gurung-Thakali, Kiranti (= Rai), Lepcha, and Newar. It remains to be seen whether this is anything more than a geographic grouping.
- The relatively well-studied Lolo-Burmese (LB) group (= *STC*’s “Burmese-Lolo”) is deemed to include the somewhat aberrant Jinuo language of Xishuangbanna, Yunnan.²⁴ The Naxi/Moso language is quite close to LB, but stands somewhat outside the core of the family.²⁵
- The rather mysterious Tujia language of Hunan and Hubei (not mentioned in *STC*) has so far not been assigned to a subgroup.

Most recent subgrouping schema

My most up-to-date reconsideration of TB subgrouping has been motivated by very recent research on the Luish languages (HUZIWARA Keisuke 2008, 2012; Sangdong 2012), as well as on Jingpho dialects (KURABE Keita 2013). It now seems clear that Jingpho’s closest relatives are the formerly obscure languages of the Luish²⁶ group, with the Northern Naga group also fairly close, and the Bodo-Garo group more distantly related. On the other hand, Nungish (once believed to be especially close to Jingpho) now seems to constitute an independent subgroup, so that the many lexical similarities it shows with Jingpho are due to contact rather than to any particularly close genetic relationship.²⁷ These matters were explored in detail in Matisoff 2013a, which offers (p. 39) a “Jingpho-Asakian Stammbaum”, here reproduced as Figure 4.

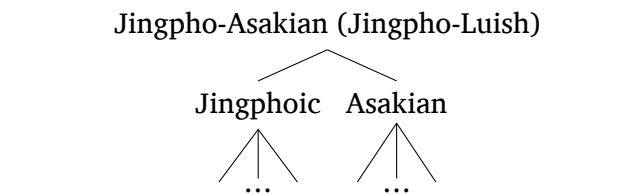


Figure 4: Jingpho-Asakian Stammbaum

Extending this position of the family tree to include Northern Naga and Bodo-Garo, we may re-interpret Burling’s *Sal* grouping, as displayed in Figure 5 (cf. Matisoff 2013a:40).

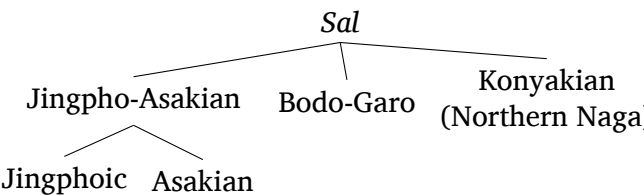


Figure 5: Elaboration of the *Sal* hypothesis

A further change in the previous STEDT schema is my recent abandonment of the cover-term “Kamarupan” for sociolinguistic reasons.²⁸ For now we are substituting “NE Indian Areal group”.

We may now present the latest version of our subgrouping scheme, as shown in Figure 6.

Finally, we are left with the major question of where Chinese fits into the picture. The standard view has always been that the primary split in the ST family is between Chinese (= Sinitic) on the one hand, and TB on the other. This is now being questioned by certain scholars who claim that there are no clear innovations shared by TB as a whole with respect to Chinese, or that there is an especially close relationship between Chinese and a particular branch of TB.²⁹ If we adopt such a point of view, that would make Sinitic just another branch of a superfamily we might call “Sino-Tibeto-Burman” (STB). It seems prudent, however, to treat this as an open question for the time being.

Teleo- and meso-reconstruction

While in the abstract it might seem super-virtuous to refrain from venturing to reconstruct at the PTB (or *a fortiori*, the PST) level until satisfactory reconstructions are available at every subgroup level, in fact this is neither possible nor necessary. The data are still uneven in the various branches of the family, ranging from the overwhelmingly copious to the tantalizingly sparse, from the phonologically accurate to the poorly transcribed. As mentioned above, as far back as the early 1940’s³⁰ Benedict made brilliant use of “teleoreconstructive” methods by relying mainly on five criterial, phonologically conservative languages: Written Tibetan, Written Burmese, Jingpho, Lushai (Mizo), and Bodo. Teleoreconstruction sometimes involves peeking outside a subgroup in order to come up with a meso-reconstruction; i.e. making educated guesses.³¹ Thus final stops may sometimes be reconstructed for Proto-Karenic by looking elsewhere in TB. W.T. French (1983) used similar techniques in his reconstruction of some aspects of his Proto-Northern Naga.³² As in all scientific inquiry, the main thing is to form precise and correctable hypotheses, i.e. hypotheses that can be tested.

The mesolanguages on which we have relied include the following:

- Proto-Bodo (Burling 1959)
- Proto-Ersuic (Yu 2012)
- Proto-Karenic (Haudricourt 1942–5, 1975; Jones 1961; Burling 1969; Luangthongkum 2013; Solnit in prep; SHINTANI Tadahiko 2012)
- Proto-Kiranti (Michailovsky 1991)
- Proto-Kuki-Chin (VanBik 2009)
- Proto-Northern Chin (Button 2011)
- Proto-Lolo-Burmese (Burling 1967; Matisoff 1969, 1972b, 1974, 1978a, 1979, 1986b, 2010a; Bradley 1979b)
- Proto-Tamangic (Mazaudon 1978, 1994)
- Proto-Tangkhulic (Mortensen 2012)
- Proto-Tani (Sun 1993a)

Nevertheless large gaps remain in our knowledge. We have nothing approaching well-worked out reconstructions for such key subgroups as Qiangic, rGyalrongic, Baic, and Nungish. Still unclear is the exact genetic position of many transitional languages like Chepeng, Kham, Lepcha, Newar (all lumped currently with “Himalayish”), or Meithei, Karbi, Mru (close to the Kuki-Chin branch), or Naxi/Moso (close to Lolo-Burmese), or the mysterious Tujia of Hunan/Hubei. As mentioned above, the position of the crucially important Jingpho language has been undergoing reevaluation, with current opinion returning to the notion of a special relationship with Northern Naga and Bodo-Garo, and especially with the hitherto obscure Luish (= Asakian) group of Manipur, Arakan, and Bangladesh. It remains to be seen whether the large “Kamarupan” (languages of the NE Indian area) and the “Himalayish” groups are anything more than purely geographic divisions of the family, and if so what the internal relationships among their many parts might be.

Whenever possible (i.e. when the data are sufficient and the sound-laws are well enough known) we can reconstruct a given etymon at several subgroup levels. A few examples from our database:

²⁴Chinese scholars have further divided the Loloish languages of China into six nuclei, although no attempt is made in this volume to distinguish them. In Matisoff 2010a I examined Loloish tonal developments and the fate of the PLB rhyme *-a in terms of this six-way grouping, with inconclusive results.
²⁵I have grouped Naxi with Lolo-Burmese proper in a supergroup called “Burmo-Naxi-Lolo” Matisoff 1991c. On the basis of some shared tonal developments, I have also entertained the idea of a special relationship between Lolo-Burmese and Jingpho, to which I assigned the jocular designation *Jiburish* (< Ji-(ngpho) + -bur(mish) + (Lolo)ish). See Matisoff 1974, 1991c.
²⁶This group needs to be renamed (I suggest Asakian), since “Luish” is a pejorative exonym. See below, “The problem of nomenclature”.
²⁷If anything, Nungish now seems to be closer to LB than to Jingpho.
²⁸See below, “The problem of nomenclature”.
²⁹Cf. van Driem’s “Sino-Bodic” grouping (Driem 1997), and my critique of it (Matisoff 2000c).
³⁰I.e., the manuscript version of *STC*, finally published in 1972.
³¹This method must of course be applied with due caution, and I feel that Benedict applied it too loosely with respect to the vexed question of the existence of a reconstructible tonal system at the PTB level. See e.g. Benedict 1973 (“Tibeto-Burman tones, with a note on teleo-reconstruction”). Neither *HPTB* nor the STEDT database makes any attempt to reconstruct tones at the PTB level, although tones can indeed be reliably reconstructed for certain subgroups (e.g., Lolo-Burmese, Tamangic, Karenic, Kuki-Chin).
³²I would in fact recommend such a teleological approach to Sinologists as well, since TB evidence will be crucial in evaluating the competing reconstructions of Old Chinese that have been proposed in the past few decades.

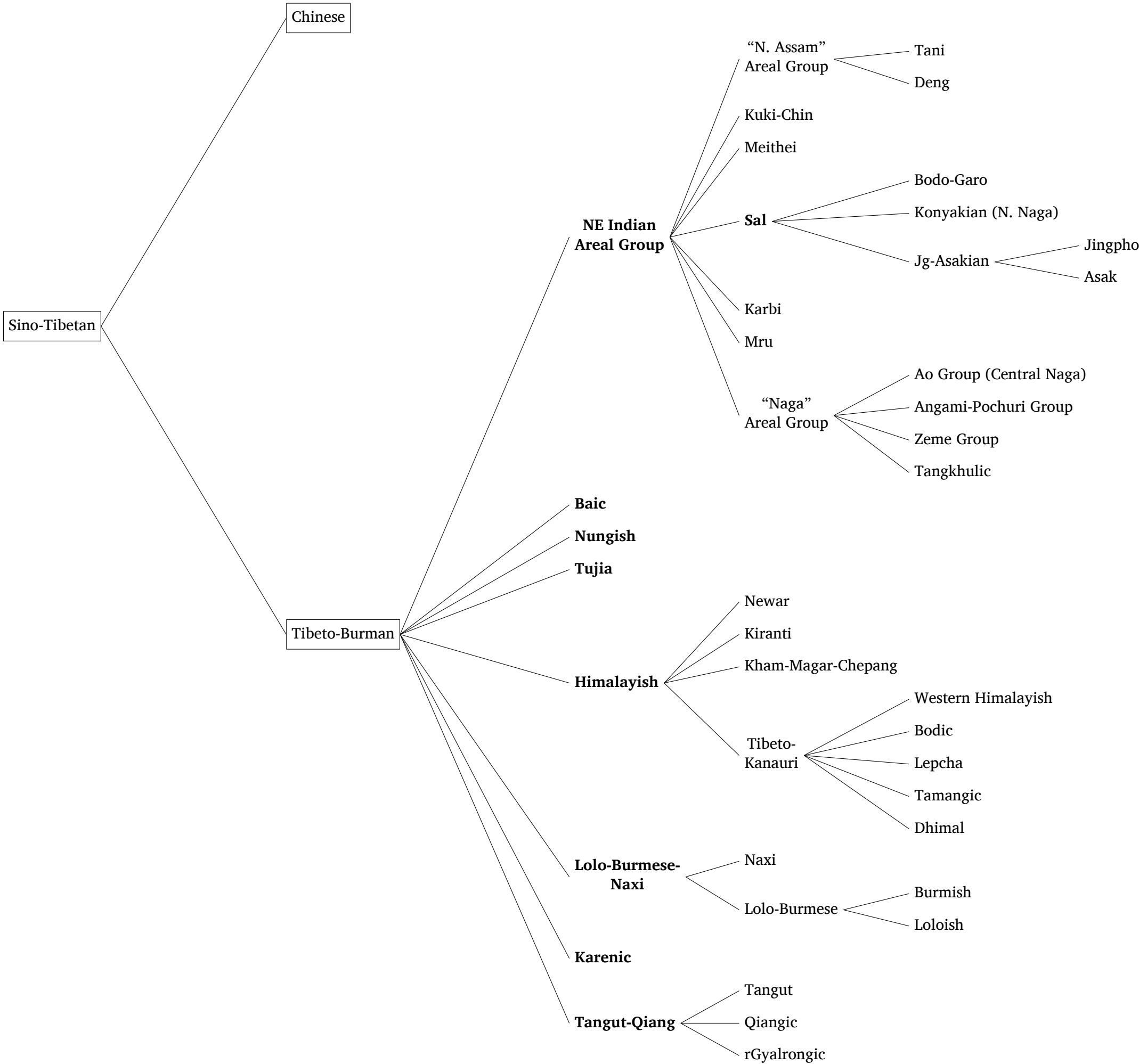


Figure 6: Updated subgrouping model of ST/TB relationships

PIG			
#1006:	PTB	*p ^w ak	
	PKC	*wok	PKC = Proto-Kuki-Chin
	PNN	*wak	PNN = Proto-Northern Naga
	PTk	*hwok	PTk = Proto-Tangkhulic
	TGTM	^b dwa	TGTM = Tamang/Gurung/Thakali/Manang
	PLB	*wak ^L	PLB = Proto-Lolo-Burmese
	PKar	*thoʔ ^D	PKar = Proto-Karenic
	P Bai	*te	P Bai = Proto-Baic
FOUR			
#2409:	PTB	*b-ləy	
	Proto-Tani	*pri	
	PKC	*lii	
	PNN	*bə lay	
	PCN	*phV-ləj	PCN = Proto-Central Naga
	PTk	*ti	
	TGTM	*bli	
	PLB	*b/?-ləy ²	
	PKar	*lwi-t	
STONE			
#1269:	PTB	*r-luŋ ≈ *k-luk	
	PTani	*luŋ	
	PKC	*luŋ	
	PCN	*luŋ	
	PTk	*luŋ	
	PLB	*k-lok ≈ *k-loŋ	
	PKar	*loŋ ^B	
TREE/WOOD			
#2658:	PTB	*siŋ ≈ *sik	
	PTani	*suŋ	
	PKC	*thiŋ	
	PCN	*siŋ	
	PTk	*thiŋ	
EIGHT			
#2259:	PTB	*b-r-gyat ≈ *(b-)g-ryat	
	PKC	*riat	
	PTk	*ŋet	
	PLB	*ʔ-rit ^L	
	PKar	*khrət ^D /grət ^D	
ASHES			
#3514:	PTB	*hot	
	PKC	*wut	
	PTk	*hwot	
	Proto-Asakian	*k-but	

When a meso-reconstruction can clearly be subsumed under a PTB etymology, we include it (along with its entire suite of supporting forms) under the PTB etymon in question. While it is always gratifying to be able to do this, in many cases it is not yet possible, so that we include the meso-reconstruction as a stand-alone item. These roots of limited distribution are actually highly important for a finer subgrouping of the TB family, since they might eventually permit the establishment of “isogloss bundles” distinguishing one subgroup from another.

The problem of nomenclature

Tibeto-Burman languages are notorious for the multiplicity of names by which they are referred to. These may include the name they use for themselves (autonym), as opposed to the name(s) other groups use for them (exonyms). Languages are frequently referred to by the principal town in which they are spoken (loconyms). Some exonyms are now felt to be pejorative, and have been abandoned, thus acquiring the status of “paleonyms” for which “neonyms” have been substituted.³³ A certain Angamoid Naga group call themselves and their language *Memi* (autonym), and their chief village they call *Sopvoma*;

but other groups use *Mao* for this village or its people (exonym), and either *Mao* or *Sopvoma* (exonymic loconym) for their language. There is an older term *Imemai* (probably an autonymic paleonym) which refers to the same language and people.

Some names are used in both a broader and a narrower sense, both for a specific language and for a group of languages that share a close contact relationship. The Maru, Atsi, and Lashi³⁴ (who speak Burmish languages) consider themselves to be “Kachin” in the broad sense, and in this the Jingpho themselves seem to agree, even though the Jingpho language belongs to a different TB subgroup.

In recent years cultural sensitivities have forced the abandonment of many language names that had been well established in the academic literature. The important Central Chin language that used to be called *Lushai* (a name which is said to mean “long-headed”) should now properly be called *Mizo*. A Karenic group that used to be known by the Burmese exonym *Taungthu* (lit. “mountain folk”) now prefers their autonym *Pa-o*. The Southern Loloish people formerly known by the Tai exonym *Phunoi* (lit. “little people”) should now be called by their autonym *Coong*. The language group that has just been shown to be particularly close to Jingpho has traditionally been called Luish, although this has been shown now to be a pejorative exonym based on the Meithei word for “slave”. It is now recommended to change this group’s name to *Asakian* (Matisoff 2013a). Speakers of several TB languages of Nepal now object to the Indianized versions of their names with the Indo-Aryan -i suffix (e.g. *Newari*, *Magari*, *Sunwari*), and prefer to omit the suffix, even though this can lead to ambiguity between the names of the people and their languages (*Newar*, *Magar*, *Sunwar*). The autonomy of the most widely spoken TB language of Manipur is Meithei, but for political reasons the preferred name is Manipuri (with the IA suffix -i!). There is an Eastern Tani language of Assam usually call Mising, but many leading members of that speech community fear the mockery and mispronunciation of English speakers, who might consider their “Mising” language to be somehow *missing* something—so they now prefer the palatalized variant *Mishing*. The psychological dimensions of these issues are often as fascinating as they are paradoxical. Chinese linguists now feel that the term *Lolo(ish)*, widely used outside of China, is offensive, and insist that the proper respectful term is *Yi*, written with the character 彝 ‘type of sacrificial wine vessel’. Yet this is only a recent substitution for the homophonous character 夷 ‘barbarian; savage group on the fringes of the Chinese empire’.

The nomenclatural confusion is particularly acute at the subgroup level, where multiple names for the same TB subgroup have proliferated. Some of this nomenclatural variation goes back to differences between Benedict and his former collaborator and supervisor Robert Shafer, e.g. Shafer’s *Barish* and *Mirish* are the same as Benedict’s *Bodo-Garo* and *Abor-Miri-Dafra*, respectively. An important group of at least a dozen TB languages spoken in East Nepal is known either as *Kiranti* or *Rai*.³⁵ An extreme example of proliferation is furnished by the well-established and non-controversial group I call Lolo-Burmese, which has also been referred to as Burmese-Lolo, Yi-Burmese, Burmese-Yi, Burmese-Yipho, Yipho-Burmese, Yi-Myanmar, Myanmar-Yipho—and even Myanmar-Ngwi!

As mentioned above, I had used the name *Kamarupan* as a cover-term for the dozens of TB languages of NE India and adjacent areas (see Figure 3), but several scholars have objected to this largely on the grounds that it has distinctly Indo-Aryan connotations, which might irritate TB groups. See, e.g. R. Burling, “On *Kamarupan*” (1999), and the reply by Matisoff, “In defense of *Kamarupan*” (1999a). I am now certainly willing to abandon this term, although I cannot think of any alternative more concise terms than “TB languages of NE India and adjacent areas”. For now, we have chosen the acronym “NEIA” for these languages, and this term appears in body of this work.³⁶

Special Challenges for ST/Eytmologization

The relative lack of anciently attested languages—only Chinese, Tibetan, Tangut (Xixia), Burmese, Meithei, Newar, and a few scantily-recorded others—is largely compensated for by the sheer number of modern TB languages (250–300). Special difficulties are presented by the monosyllabic nature of the ST/TB morpheme, a problem shared by other mono- or sesqui-syllabic language families of mainland Southeast Asia (Hmong-Mien, Tai-Kadai, Mon-Khmer).³⁷ Furthermore, in many TB subgroups these monosyllables are severely eroded phonologically, often losing all the syllable-final consonants.

There are in fact great differences among the TB subgroups with respect to their presentation of proto-entities. WT is especially valuable for its presentation of prefixes; both WT and Kuki-Chin faithfully preserve nasal, stopped, and liquid finals. On the other hand, groups like Loloish and Asakian have

³³The terminology for the various types of TB language names was developed in Matisoff 1986b: “The languages and dialects of Tibeto-Burman: an alphabetic/genetic listing, with some prefatory remarks on ethnonymic and glossonymic complications.” In John McCoy and Timothy Light, eds., *Contributions to Sino-Tibetan Studies*, pp. 1–75. This article was later (1996) expanded into a STEDT Monograph, with the assistance of J.B. Lowe and S.P. Baron.

³⁴Referred to as Langsu, Zaiwa, and Leqi in Chinese sources.

³⁵Neither of these names is considered to be pejorative. According to K.P. Malla (p.c. 2008), “*Kirāt* is a loose label in Old Indo-Aryan for the cave-dweller, attested in late Vedic texts as well as in the *Mahābhārata*.” Rai is “a Nepali word, linked to IA *raaya* ‘lord’, given to the Khambu chiefs by the Gorkhali rulers in the late 18th century.”

³⁶This would be similar the the “SHWING” group of Austronesian, i.e. the “South Halmahera West New Guinea Group”.

³⁷As opposed, e.g., to Austronesian, with its juicy disyllabic roots. For the term *sesquisyllabic*, see below.

retained only indirect traces of earlier prefixes, and have largely or completely undergone erosion of their post-vocalic consonants. rGyalrongic has developed syllable-initial consonant combinations which often surpass those of WT in complexity, but many of the will undoubtedly prove to be secondary. It is therefore a boon to find languages which preserve and erode differently: Hmong-Mien specialists are fortunate that Hmong preserves *initials better, while Mien preserves the pHM *finals better. Recent advances in research in Proto-Asakian³⁸ have been facilitated by the fact that Kadu preserves *finals better, while Sak preserves *initials better. Such differential preservation often makes for extreme differences in surface form between perfect cognates, e.g. WT **brgyad** / Lahu **hí** ‘eight’.

Phonological erosion makes it tough to distinguish between phonologically similar etyma in the same semantic field:

LOUSE ***s(y)ar** and ***s-r(y)ik**. What do you do with a form like **ꞑeʔ**?

MIND/BREATH ***s(y)am** and ***sak**

MOUTH ***mu:r** and ***muk**

FACE ***s-may** and ***s-myal**

As an extreme example, we have reconstructed no fewer than 11 etyma meaning NECK/THROAT with initial velars or velar clusters:³⁹ #389 ***s-gwa-n** ≈ ***r-gwa-n** NECK/NAPE (probably related to #495 ***kwa** THROAT/NECK); #481 ***s-key-k** ≈ ***m-key-k** NECK; #486 ***l-kwak** THROAT/NECK; #488 ***k-raw** ≈ ***k-law** THROAT/PALATE; #489 ***k/s-rawk/ŋ** ≈ **k-rwak/ŋ** THROAT; #491 ***grey-k** THROAT; #493 ***kak** THROAT; #494 ***ka** THROAT/NECK; #3361 ***gwaŋ** NECK/THROAT; #5651 ***ku** NECK/THROAT.

Some of these putative etyma may ultimately be combinable (e.g. #389 and #495, #481 and #491).⁴⁰ It is necessary to constantly rectify one’s reconstructions in the light of new data (see below, “Etymological accuracy and rectification of possible errors”), and equally imperative to try to establish “sound laws” by finding parallel examples (see below, “Parallel but surprising examples”).

Phonological System of Proto-Tibeto-Burman

Most reconstructions conform to the PTB syllable canon posited in *HPTB*:11–13, shown in Figure 7:

(P₂) (P₁) C_i (G) V (:) (C_f) (s)

Figure 7: Original PTB syllable canon

The initial consonant C_i could be preceded by up to two prefixes, with the inner prefix (P₁) usually assumed to be historically prior to the outer one (P₂).⁴¹ Since one must also assume that some sort of schwa-like vowel must have intervened between the prefix and the root-initial (especially in doubly-prefixed forms like WT **brgyad** ‘eight’), this canon actually crosses the boundary between monosyllable and sesquisyllable.⁴² While it is sometimes possible assign a clear meaning to a prefixal element,⁴³ this is not generally the case.⁴⁴ (Should it be objected that the term “prefix” should be reserved for fully meaningful elements, we could use the neutral term “formative” instead.) In fact, the semantic and morphophonemic behavior of the prefixes is one of the most interesting aspects of TB morphology.⁴⁵ New prefixes are being created all the time, via the reduction (a.k.a. prefixization) of destressed initial constituents in compounds (e.g. PLB ***bəw^h-rwak** ‘ant’ with the first syllable meaning ‘bug’ > WB **pərwak**). Morphophonemically the prefixes can interact with the root-initial in a variety of ways, including what I have called “prefixal preemption”, when a prefix drives out a weak initial like a nasal, liquid, or semivowel.

The C_i may be followed by one of four glides */-w-, -y-, -r-, -l-/ or even by certain sequences of two of them (especially -yw-).

The PTB vowel system in open syllables is displayed in Figure 8 (see *HPTB*:159–160). Low frequency open-syllable rhymes are in parentheses or square brackets:

(-i)	-əy	-əw	(-u)
[-e]	-ey (-ew)	-ow (-oy)	[-o]
	-ay -a:y	-aw -a:w	
	a		

Figure 8: PTB open vowels

The only monophthong of high frequency is ***a**. Although ***i** and ***u** (especially ***u**) are reconstructible, in many languages they have merged with ***ey** and ***ow**, respectively. The core of the system is ***a** plus a set of falling diphthongs.

Very recently I have banished the weakly attested mid-vowels (**-e**, **-o**) from PTB reconstructions altogether, both in open and closed syllables, substituting for them a set of rising and falling diphthongs */-**wa**(-), *-**ya**(-), *-**aw**(-), *-**ay**(-)/.⁴⁶ These formerly reconstructed mid vowels appear in square brackets in Figure 8.

The reinterpretation of some of the formerly reconstructed mid vowels as falling diphthongs necessitates a slight revision in the syllable canon, to permit sequences like */-**wk**-, **-yk**-, **-wŋ**-, **-yŋ**/. We may now revise the PTB syllable canon as shown in Figure 9:

(P₂) (P₁) C_i (G₁) (G₂) V (:) (w/y) (C_f) (s)

Figure 9: Revised PTB syllable canon

Vowel length is reconstructed for PTB, with most of the evidence coming from the Kuki-Chin branch. This is an area where variation is rife, and a length contrast is only shakily reconstructible for the family as a whole.⁴⁷

The set of final consonants includes nasals, stops, liquids, and **-s**: */-**m** -**ŋ** -**p** -**t** -**k** -**r** -**l** -**s**/. The rarest of these is ***s**, reconstructible in only a few etyma. In both open and closed syllables, a suffixal ***s** appears in languages like WT (e.g., WT **zas** ‘food’ < ***dzya** ‘eat’; **sbugs** ‘hole’ ≈ **sbug** ‘pierce’).

No attempt is made to reconstruct tones beyond the subgroup level, since it is far from proven that a single system of tonal contrasts can be set up for PTB.

It should be noted that many TB languages have much simpler syllable canons, e.g., Lahu (Central Loloish), where native syllables consist maximally of an initial consonant, a vowel, and a tone:

 T
(C_i) V

Organization of the Etymologies

The “tagging” process

Etymologization of the thousands of forms in the STEDT database is a laborious and time-intensive process. In principle we are responsible for etymologizing every syllable of every form in the database, by subsuming each syllable under a particular etymon or word-family. This is done by “tagging” the syllables with a numeral representing its provenience, whether it be a root already established in the

³⁸e.g. HUIZWARA Keisuke 2008, Sangdong 2012, Matisoff 2013a.

³⁹This is perhaps further confirmation of the frequently noted tendency of words for these parts of the body to have “guttural” initials.

⁴⁰This classic problem of distinguishing co-allofams from reflexes of separate roots has bedeviled Tibeto-Burmanists from the beginning. Benedict (*STC*) hesitated before assigning ***g-yak** and ***s-rak** ASHAMED to two separate roots (#452 and #431); similarly with ***m-da** and ***b-la** ARROW (pp. 111–112 and #449). I now believe that two separate roots I set up in *GSTC* (Matisoff 1985a) actually reflect the same etymon, so I would now combine CATTLE/DOMESTIC ANIMAL ***dzay** (#129) with ELEPHANT/CATTLE ***tsay** (#143). In 1988 I tried to show that two homophonous roots set up in Benedict (*STC*) (***dyam** STRAIGHT and ***dyam** FULL/FILL) are actually one and the same root (Matisoff 1988b). For many similar examples, see Matisoff 2013a.

⁴¹To take a synchronic example, the etymon ***m-lyak** ‘lick’ must be reconstructed with a nasal prefix that is found in several branches of the family (e.g. Chungli Ao **mǎnák** ~ **mǎzək**, Jg. **mǎtǎʔ**, Akha **myəʔ**). The reflex in Tangkhul Naga, however, is **khamələk**, with a secondary vowel prefix that now occurs before all TN verbs.

⁴²This term, introduced in Matisoff 1973, describes morphemes that are “one syllable and a half” in length.

⁴³The pioneer in attempting to do so at the PTB level was Wolfenden 1929.

⁴⁴The stronghold of sesquisyllabicity in Southeast Asia is the Mon-Khmer family, but specialists in that family have despaired of attaching any particular meanings to the “minor syllables” with schwa-like vocalism.

⁴⁵See the extended discussion in *HPTB*:87–156.

⁴⁶See Matisoff to appear. Notations like *-**wa**(-) mean “***wa** in both open and closed syllables”.

⁴⁷See *HPTB*:237–45.

prior literature or one newly reconstructed by STEDT. The computer can then assemble all similarly tagged forms to create a cognate set. Under favorable circumstances every syllable of a compound can indeed receive a proper tag, e.g. Lahu **ǵŭ-tu-ši** ‘navel’ can be shown to be formed from three well-established roots **ǵŭ** < #137 ***p^ham** ‘belly, stomach, waist’, **tu** < #520 ***du** ‘navel, umbilical cord’, and **ši** < #1019 ***sey** ‘fruit, rose, round object’. But in reality, of course, a great many of our millions of syllables remain to be tagged, and many will never be etymologized. Such is the case with the five-syllable Lahu word **ǎ-lǎ-mì-ši-jǎ** ‘rainbow’, none of which can yet be assigned to an etymon.⁴⁸

Besides our numerical tags a number of alphabetical symbols are also used: *p* for ‘prefix’, *s* for ‘suffix’, *b* for ‘borrowing’,⁴⁹ and *m* for ‘morpheme’. The latter tag is assigned to an etymologically obscure constituent of a compound the other members of which have been assigned an etymology.

Supporting forms and their attribution

Each record in our database is ascribed to a particular source. Many of these forms, especially from well-documented languages like Written Tibetan, Written Burmese, or Jingpho, are cited from more than one source. Even when the form is cited identically in multiple sources, we include each citation.⁵⁰ When a given form is cited somewhat differently in the sources, our practice of “following copy” is especially useful, particularly when one or more of the sources might not be totally accurate phonemically, or where subphonemic phonetic detail is provided in one source but not another.⁵¹ Great care has also been taken to attribute etymologies to their original source, if they were not newly created at STEDT.

The STEDT database contains forms from sources of many different kinds, including:

- printed books, monographs, articles, especially dictionaries and grammars of individual languages
- synonym lists (i.e. groups of forms from different languages with the same meaning, but with no reconstructions provided), e.g. Luce 1985; SUN Hongkai et al. 1991 (ZMYYC); HUANG Bufan & DAI Qingxia, eds. 1992 (TBL)
- semantically based questionnaires solicited by STEDT from fieldworkers working on particular languages
- monographs and treatises of an etymological nature, including works which provide reconstructions at the subgroup level

The supporting forms for an etymology are cited subgroup by subgroup, in a fixed order. As explained above, meso-reconstructions are subsumed (along with their own supporting forms) under general PTB etymologies whenever possible.

For some key languages, special points need to be made:

Written Tibetan

In Jäschke 1881/1958 the letter known as “a-chung” is written with a subscript circle in initial position, e.g. **bu** ‘insect’. For this we have substituted the symbol **ḥ**, e.g. **ḥbu** ‘insect’.

Jäschke symbolizes aspiration by a backward apostrophe, for which we substitute **-h-**, e.g. **kha** ‘bitter’, instead of **k’a**.

Jäschke writes the palatal series of stops with the cumbersome symbols “č, č’, j”, for which we substitute “**c**, **ch**, **j**”.

Written Burmese

Already in the Rhyming Dictionary of Written Burmese (1941/1977), Benedict’s original “**ts**, **tsh**, **dz**” were changed to “**c**, **ch**, **j**”. The unaspirated member of this series can also occur syllable finally, so that, e.g. Benedict’s tshats ‘joint’ has been reinterpreted as **chac**.

The low back nasal rhyme is sometimes written as “**-oŋ**” (as in the RDWB) and sometimes as “**-auŋ**” (as in HPTB).

The three WB tones in open syllables have been described and symbolized in many different ways, but our preferred notation is: no tonemark for the modal tone (e.g. **la** ‘come’), a circumflex for the heavy tone (e.g. **lâ** ‘yes/no question particle’), and an apostrophe for the creaky tone (e.g. **la’** ‘moon’).

Jingpho

Tones are not indicated in the classic source, Hanson (1906/1954). Dai Qingxia et al. (1983) use the system devised by Chao Yuen-ren for Chinese dialects, i.e. a system of super- or sub-script numerals. Other authors (e.g. Matisoff 1974, 1991) use diacritical marks. Thus, ‘house’ may be written as **nta** (Hanson), **n^{ss}ta^{s1}** (Dai et al.), or **ń-tâ** (Matisoff).

Chinese

Old (= “Archaic”) Chinese forms cited from Karlgren’s *Grammata Serica Recensa* (1957) are cited exactly as he wrote them. OC forms cited from Coblin (1986) are according to Li Fang-kuei, while those cited from Schuessler (2007) or Baxter/Sagart (2013) are in the latest versions of their own systems.

Glosses of the supporting forms

In almost all cases, the gloss given in each particular source is preserved, unless it is so awkward or misleading as to require emendation.⁵² Even if the glosses in consecutive records are identical, the gloss is repeated for each individual record, instead of using a symbol like the “ditto-mark”.

If a gloss is too long to fit onto a single line, it is “wrapped” so that the additional lines are indented under the first one.

Many glosses are ambiguous due to the peculiarities of homophony or homography in the English lexicon, e.g. *bark*, *bear*, *boil*, *calf*, *drop*, *fly*, *quiver*, *right*, *scale*, *sow*, *tear*, *wind*, etc.⁵³ Some sources take pains to disambiguate such glosses by providing additional information, e.g. ‘bark (of dog)’ vs. ‘bark (of tree)’; ‘wind (n.)’ vs. ‘wind (v.)’, etc. Many other sources, however, are not so helpful, and it has been up to us to try to figure out which alternative is correct, on the basis of comparative evidence.

Notes

Notes may appear at any point in an etymology. The loosely-hierarchical taxonomy of notes used is as follows:

- “**chapter notes**”, which introduce new thesaurus (semantic) sections; note that this moniker is not completely accurate: chapter notes may introduce volumes and fascicles as well.
- “**etymon notes**”, which present points about an etymon as a whole. Details on their composition is given further below.
- “**subgroup notes**” pertain to a particular subgroup.
- “**source notes**”, copied from the original source document, appear as footnotes with record notes, start with the indicator *[Source Note]*.
- “**record notes**” are associated with a specific supporting form. They appear as alphabetically numbered footnotes at the end of the tabular cognate set display (and the numbered restarts with each set).
- “**internal notes**” are reminders made by STEDTniks in the course of their work and do not appear in the printed work.

⁴⁸Words for RAINBOW tend to by multisyllabic and unanalyzable in many TB languages, undoubtedly because of the mythic significance of rainbows. Not a single root for RAINBOW can be reconstructed at the PTB level.

⁴⁹For more details about the treatment of borrowings, see below, “Treatment of loanwords”.

⁵⁰Paper is not a problem electronically, but in printed publications (e.g. *TBRs*) the form only appears once, with multiple attributions separated by commas.

⁵¹Cf. the multiple transcriptions of the Written Burmese form for BREAST/MILK under ***s-nəw**: **no¹** (SUN Hongkai et al. 1991:281.39); **nui** (Weidert 1987:327; *STC*:419); **núi** (Coblin 1986:48); **nuì** (Matisoff 1987; Marrison 1967; Benedict 1976a); **nui**. (Marrison 1967); **nuiw**’ (Luce 1985). Records marked with the abbreviation “JAM-Ety” refer to my own etymological notes compiled in the pre-STEDT era, derived especially from older, classic sources. These specific sources can easily be tracked down from the *Bibliography*.

⁵²Our practice of “following copy” does not extend to obvious errors, e.g. misspellings in the gloss. It is always best to bear in mind Ralph Waldo Emerson’s apothegm “A foolish consistency is the hobgoblin of little minds...”

⁵³This problem is of course not unique to English. Cf. the French verbs *voler* ‘fly; steal’ and the corresponding nouns *le vol* ‘flight; theft’.

Notes at the level of a semantic category or etymon are shown “inline”, that is, as paragraphs in the running text. “Subgroup notes”, “source notes”, and “record notes” are shown as footnotes.

Many etyma have **Chinese comparanda** and these are rendered as a separate section following their associated etymon (see details below).

Etymon notes provide such information as:

- (a) **richness of attestation:** This ranges from a minimum of two perfectly cognate forms, each from a different branch of the family (e.g. #2625 ***d-rum** ‘pine for’), to etyma with support from dozens of languages (e.g. #230 ***s-hywəy-t** ‘blood’).
- (b) **distribution of the etymon among the subgroups:** e.g., “***dum** ‘kiss/suck’ is firmly established in Tani, N. Naga, and Barish, with convincing but so far isolated cognates in Chepang (Himalayish) and Nesu (Loloish).”
- (c) **distribution of a phonological feature:** e.g. “In ***m-prwag** ‘mouth’, the ***m-** prefix is only directly attested in Qiangic, Tani, and S. Chin.”
- (d) **meso-roots** to be subsumed under the PTB reconstruction.
- (e) **allofams:** variant forms that follow well-established patterns (see below, “Notational conventions and pan-allofamic formulas” & following).
- (f) **irregularities:** apparently related forms that vary in a non-structured way, perhaps due to borrowing from a related language, or to a now lost morphological element. Such forms are included in some etymologies in hopes that the irregularities will be explained in the future.

Chinese comparanda

After the evidence for a TB etymon is presented, one or more Chinese comparanda are often suggested in the interests of pushing the reconstruction further back to the PST stage.⁵⁴ However, no attempt is made to choose among the often contradictory reconstruction schemes for Old Chinese, and I usually have not tried to set up PST forms, as *STC* sporadically attempted to do.

In addition to these sources, OC reconstructions are also cited from GONG Hwang-chenrg (2000, 2001), Coblin (1986), PAN Wuyun (2000), Schuessler (2007, 2009)), and the new Baxter/Sagart system (Baxter & Sagart, 2011).⁵⁵

Many of the comparanda have been discussed by Zev Handel; his contributions are indication by the inclusion of his initials “ZJH” at the end of the section. Stephen Baron recently returned to the project and has reviewed and improved a number of the comparanda. His initials (“SPB”) appear along with items he has revised. A comparandum cited without attribution is the responsibility of JAM.

Treatment of loanwords

As mentioned above, obvious loanwords from non-TB languages are tagged as such in our database, with the symbol “b” for “borrowing”. When the source of the borrowing is clear, this information is provided, e.g. “bChinese”, “bIndic”, “bMon”.

If an etymon of Indic origin has been borrowed into a large number of TB languages, as is frequently the case in the Himalayan and Northeast Indian areas, we sometimes include the Indic root among our etymologies, marked as “IA” (Indo-Aryan). A couple of examples:

- IA ***ghoDā** HORSE > Apatani **go-ra**, Mizro **sa-kor**, Lotha Naga **ku'rə**¹, Tibetan (Jirel) **gorā**, Khaling **ghora**, Bodo **goray**, Chang **kuri**, etc.
- IA ***battakh** DUCK > Chinbon **papak**, Mongsen Ao **phàtāk**, Chaudangsi **bətək**, Phom **bat**⁵⁵**æk**⁵⁵, Jingpho **khai**³³**pjek**⁵⁵, Raji **batak**, etc.

It sometimes happens that there is an accidental phonological resemblance between a non-TB etymon and a genuine TB root with a similar meaning. In the rare cases where it is hard to decide between borrowing and chance resemblance, we tag the lexical item as “b?”.

The Representation of Semantic Associations

As opposed to the organization of *HPTB*, where the etymologies are presented according to their phonological shape, the etymologies in this *Etymological Dictionary and Thesaurus* are arranged by their semantic content.⁵⁶

Every gloss that appears anywhere in our database has been assigned to one or more semantic categories, according to a system we have developed known as SEMCAT.

Many of the points in semantic space in this Dictionary/Thesaurus, as well as each of the chapters of *TBR*S, are provided with semantic diagrams, called “metastatic flowcharts” in STEDT parlance. These diagrams were first introduced in *VSTB*, and have been used subsequently in many of my articles.⁵⁷

They are intended to represent the paths of semantic association undergone by etyma, as established by comparative/historical and/or internal synchronic evidence. An association between two points (X,Y) in semantic space may be established either synchronically or diachronically, either on the basis of a single language or comparatively. I rely on three basic types of evidence:⁵⁸

- 1. *Synchronic intra-lingual vagueness.* A given daughter language has a single form that means X or Y according to context, e.g. Karbi **arho** means either ‘blood vessel’ or ‘tendon’ or ‘muscle’ or ‘nerve’. In many Chin languages reflexes of ***m-luŋ** can mean either HEART or LIVER.
- 2. *Inter-lingual semantic shift of phonological cognates,* i.e. reflexes of the same etymon mean X in Lg. A but Y in Lg. B, e.g.:

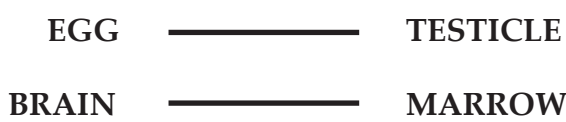
PTB ***r-kliŋ** ‘marrow/brain’ > Karbi **arkleŋ** ‘marrow’, Dimasa **buthluŋ** ‘brain’;

PTB ***s-p**”ik ‘bowels/stomach’ > Karbi **phek** ‘bowels’, Lahu **ᵛ-fᵛ-qᵛ** ‘stomach’.
- 3. *Association via compounding.* Three points (A,B,C) in semantic space are related, such that in some language a compound of two morphemes, A + B, has the meaning C. In other words, an etymon appears as a constituent in compounds, such that part of the meaning of the compound derives from it, e.g.:

FOOT + EYE → ANKLE (Lahu **khi-mᵛᵛ-ṣi** < **khi** ‘foot’ + **mᵛᵛ-ṣi** ‘eye’); similarly Indonesian **mata-kaki** ‘ankle’ (< **mata** ‘eye’ + **kaki** ‘foot’), which establishes the association EYE ↔ ANKLE⁵⁹

Certain graphological conventions are observed in the metastatic flowcharts:

- 1. Points in semantic space between which an association has been established are connected by solid lines. If a point is a bodypart, it is labeled in capital letters. An association between two points that are both bodyparts is an “intra-field association”, e.g.:



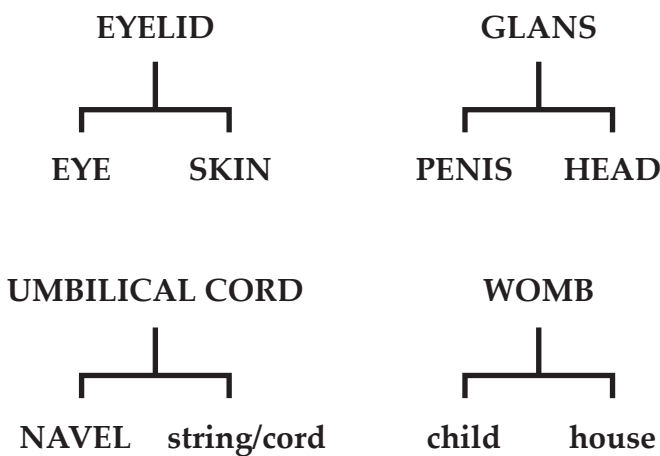
- 2. If the association crosses into another semantic field (e.g., if it is between a bodypart and a non-bodypart), the non-bodypart point is labeled with small letters, e.g.:



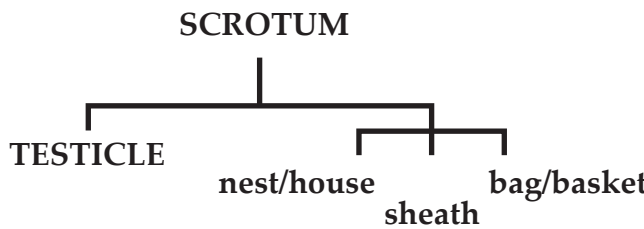
- 3. Antonymic associations (cases where the etymon has acquired opposite meanings) are diagrammed by a curved *yin-yang* type of line, e.g.:



- 4. Compounds are diagrammed by a pitchfork-like symbol, with the two constituents appearing at the points of the fork, and the overall meaning of the compound indicated at the tip of the handle, e.g.:



The same convention with respect to capital vs. small letters applies to compounds. In cases where several different combinations of morphemes are attested in compounds with the same meaning, graphic constraints sometimes require geometric reorientations of the pitchfork, e.g.



The category of “reproductive bodyparts” is construed broadly to include related verbs (e.g., KISS, SUCK, LOVE, SQUIRT).

More complex flowcharts have been constructed for the associations of SKIN, based on the analysis of etyma with that meaning. These are presented in Figures 10 and 11.⁶⁰

In all language families, semantic associations and variation are much less structured than phonological variation. Sometimes the same unexpected semantic association is found in widely different language families, e.g. BRAIN and MARROW, exemplified both in IE and TB.⁶¹ Other associations seem to be confined to a particular family, e.g. YEAST and SALT, so far discovered only in TB.⁶²

The vagaries of semantic history occasionally result in strange allofamic bedfellows, e.g. Eng. **black** and **blank**, from the same PIE root ***bhel-** SHINE/FLASH/BURN/SHINING WHITE AND VARIOUS BRIGHT COLORS, or Eng. **science** and **shit** < ***skei-** CUT/SPLIT.

Given this unpredictability, how much semantic latitude is prudent in our etymologies, and under what circumstances can semantic leaps be plausibly justified? On the wild side we have megalocomparative fantasies with implausible semantic associations offered which are totally unsupported by reasonable phonological correspondences or areal semantic tendencies, as in Jan Braun’s *Sumerian and Tibeto-Burman* (2001), in which he claims genetic connections between pairs of words like the following:

<i>Sumerian</i>	<i>Written Tibetan</i>
gim ‘axe’	hgem-pa ‘destroy’
alad ‘protective demon’	lad-mo ‘imitation’
šinig ‘tamarisk’	snyigs-pa ‘degenerated; grown worse’
peš ‘three’	gsum ‘three’

Deciding how much semantic latitude to allow among putative cognates is definitely an art rather than a science.⁶³ Here as elsewhere a middle-of-the-road approach is necessary, neither overly conservative nor too wildly speculative.

Regularity and variation

Every spoken language is rife with variation on both the phonological and semantic planes, some of it rule-governed and some of it sporadic. Thus, despite the qualms of certain extreme neogrammarians, we must assume that this is true for proto-languages as well. It must be admitted that a lot of guesswork is involved in etymologizing material from hundreds of languages and dialects at once, without having established the “sound laws” in advance. The problems are especially acute when comparing phonologically depleted languages with those having richer syllable canons. When there is a partial phonological similarity between distinct etyma with the same meaning, it is not easy to decide by simple inspection to which etymon we should assign a phonologically slight form in a daughter language.

There is a dialectical relationship between synchronic data and sound laws. The “laws” are derived by inference from the data in the first place, but once proto-forms are reconstructed, they can be used to guide us in our hunt for cognates in languages not yet examined (even if they have undergone semantic change). Almost every TB/ST etymology so far proposed presents problems and complications—irregularities—in some language or other, which is par for the course even in the much better known Indo-European family. Part of our task is to indicate where the exceptions, problems, and irregularities lie, in the hope that they can ultimately be explained. The concept of “regularity” itself is by no means simple, nor does it mean the same thing to different scholars.⁶⁴

Those who lack what I have called “Proto-Sprachgefühl”⁶⁵ can produce abstract, formulaic reconstructions bristling with strange symbols but devoid of any phonetic or typological plausibility.⁶⁶ Given sufficient semantic latitude and proto-forms that are complex enough, one can formulate “sound laws” in such a way that they appear completely regular and exceptionless. At an extreme level we find “megalocomparative” proposals of genetic relationship that turn received notions upside down (e.g. Sino-Mayan, Sino-Caucasian, Sino-Austronesian, Japanese-Dravidian), and which can lead the unwary down fruitless paths, obscuring the differences among cognates, borrowings, and chance resemblances.⁶⁷ Various tricks of analysis that I have lumped under the rubric of “proto-form stuffing” can help the Nostraticist or Sino-Mayanist convince himself that his fantastical comparisons are “perfectly regular”. Paradigmatically, one can multiply the number of proto-phonemes. If you reconstruct 35 proto-vowels, any anomalous vowel correspondence can be regarded as “regularly reflecting” a separate proto-vowel. Syntagmatically, if you reconstruct etyma like ***mr̥gsla**, and the monstrous proto-cluster ***mr̥gsl-** occurs only in a single etymon, any set of reflexes in the daughter languages can be said to be “regular”.⁶⁸

The time-depth of PST is perhaps 6000 years B.P., about at the limits of the comparative method. We can hardly afford to insist on “perfect regularity” of correspondence among our putative cognates. But instead of resorting to “proto-form stuffing” to try to explain away problems, what is needed is an explicit theory of variational phenomena. TB and ST etyma, like those of other language families, are not independent isolated entities, but stand in complex phonosemantic relationships with each other. It has been recognized for a long time that words in Chinese and TB languages participate in morphophonemic groups of partially resemblant forms that have been called “word families”.⁶⁹ In *VSTB* I developed the

⁵⁴Most of these comparanda have already been included in *HPTB*.

⁵⁵See “A Concise Introduction to Old Chinese Phonology” by Zev Handel (*HPTB*:543–574), which treats the major differences in the reconstructive systems of Karlgren (*GSR*), Li Fang Kuei (1976, 1971/1980), and William Baxter (1992).

⁵⁶This is also the organizational plan of *TBR*S, which deals entirely with a single semantic area, the Reproductive System. (This was originally supposed to constitute Fascicle Nine of Vol I (Body-parts). Most of the examples in this section are drawn from *TBR*S, since it is there that the semantic associations of the etyma have been investigated most thoroughly.)

⁵⁷See, e.g., Matisoff 1980 (“Stars, moon, and spirits”), 1985a (“God and the ST copula”), 1985b (“Arm, hand, wing”), 1988b (“Property, livestock, talent”), 1991a (“Grammatization in Lahu”), 1991d (“Mother of all morphemes”), 1994a (“Buttock and heel”), 2000d (“Three TB word-families”), and 2004 (“Areal semantics”).

⁵⁸See the discussion in *VSTB*:194–200.

⁵⁹The same formation is found in many other TB languages, e.g.:

	<i>FOOT</i>	<i>EYE</i>	<i>ANKLE</i>
Lalung	ia-thong	mi	ia-thong-mi
Limbu	lāŋ	mik	lāŋ-mik
Lushai (Mizo)	ke	mit	ke-mit
Meithei	khu	mit	khu-mit
Tangkhu	phei	mik-ra	phei-mik-ra
Written Burmese	khre	myak-ci	khre-myak-ci

⁶⁰As a desideratum for the future, one might envision three-dimensional semantic diagrams like those used to model molecules in organic chemistry!

⁶¹See *VSTB*, pp. 182–3, 203.

⁶²See Matisoff 2003a (*HPTB*:34) and 2003b. Yeast is traditionally used for brewing liquor rather than for baking bread in East and SE Asia. Both salt and yeast are efficacious substances that have dramatic effects on the taste of food or drink; their lack renders the food or drink insipid. Cf. Proto-Kuki-Naga ***m-tsyi** ‘salt’ and Jingpho **mətsi**, Lahu **dī** ‘yeast’ (Lahu voiced initials come from *prenasalized ones).

⁶³As in many other respects, Benedict was also a pioneer in the field of SE Asian areal semantics. Cf. his brilliant article “Semantic differentiation in Indo-Chinese” (1939).

⁶⁴See Matisoff 1992 (“Following the marrow”) and 1994d (“Regularity and variation”).

⁶⁵See Matisoff 1982.

⁶⁶Recent examples of this genre include Sedláček 1970; Weidert 1975, 1979, 1981, 1987; Peiros & Starostin 1996.

⁶⁷See Matisoff 1990 (“On megalocomparison”). Megalocomparison has the apparent advantage of non-falsifiability, since, as Haudricourt has observed, one can never prove that any two languages are not related. But non-falsifiable hypotheses are not scientific. When presented with alternative non-falsifiable proposals it is impossible to choose among them.

⁶⁸This is actually the proto-form offered in Weidert 1981:25 for an etymon meaning ‘spirit, ghost, shadow’ (reconstructed as ***m-hla** in *STC* #475). As I have observed (Matisoff 1982:22), “It is always possible and sometimes necessary to invent an *ad hoc* explanation for an anomalous case. It is even true that some such *ad hoc* ‘solutions’ are more plausible than others. The only harm is in deluding oneself that an explanation which covers only a single case establishes a ‘regularity’.”

⁶⁹See the pioneering study of Karlgren (1933), “Word families in Chinese”.

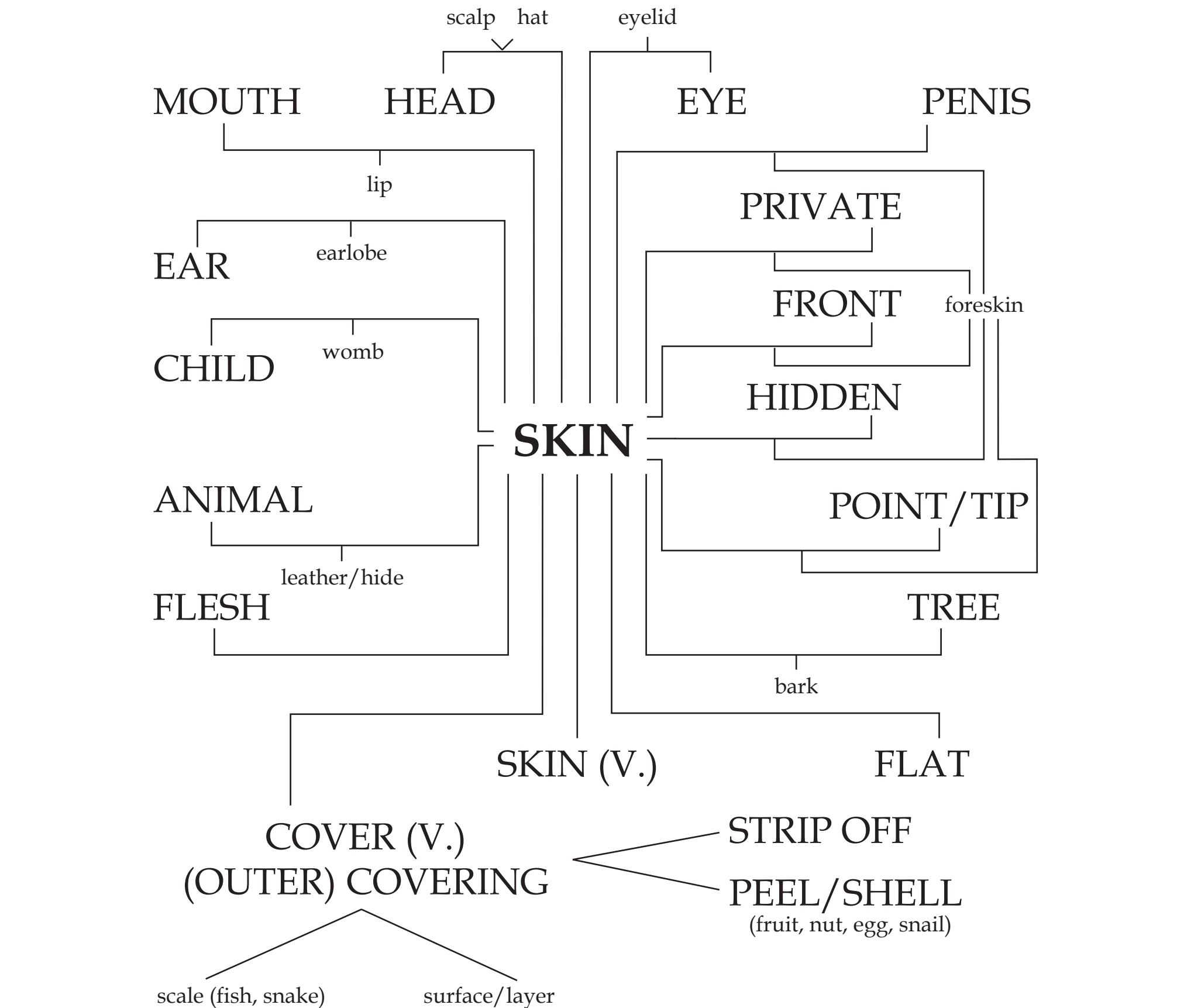


Figure 10: SKIN flowchart #1

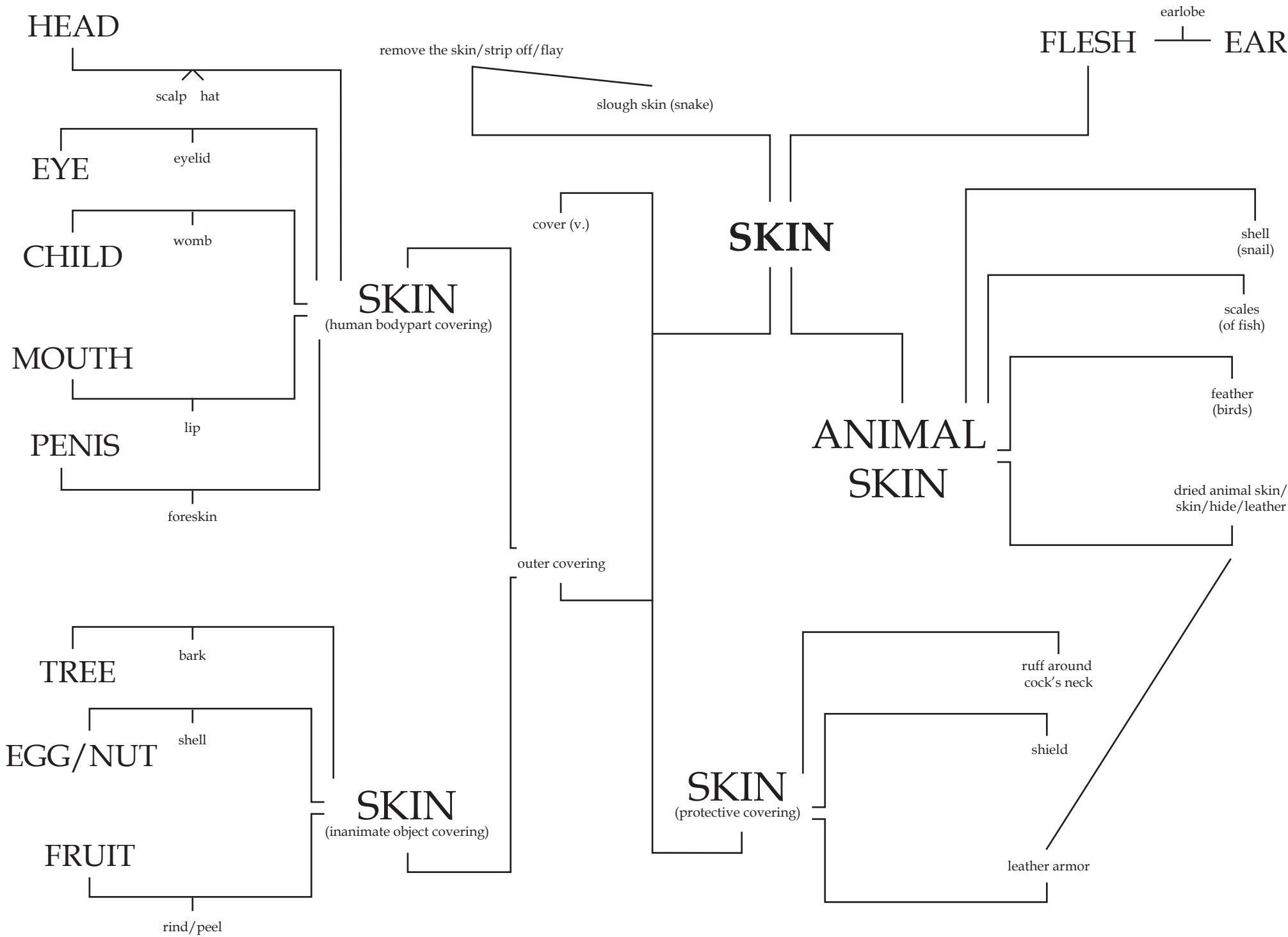


Figure 11: SKIN flowchart #2

notion of the *allofam*, or individual member of a word-family, and advocated the formulation of “allofamic reconstructions” that accommodated all the well-attested variants deemed to descend from the same proto-word-family. The symbol ⌘ was introduced to symbolize an allofamic relationship between variant forms, i.e., “A ⌘ B” means that “A and B are synchronic allofams of each other”, while “*A ⌘ *B” means that there is a word-family relationship between A and B at the proto-level.⁷⁰

Needless to say, extreme care must be used in claiming that different forms are variants of the same etymon. Allofamic theory must be applied in a controlled and constrained way.⁷¹ Not everything may be said to vary with everything else! It is sometimes quite difficult to decide whether partially resemblant

⁷⁰This symbol ⌘, a combination of > ‘goes to’ and < ‘comes from’, is meant to suggest that neither variant is necessarily deemed to have temporal priority, but that both must be set up to account for attested forms. Other related symbols are A ⌘ B “A is not an allofam of B,” and A ⌘ B “is A an allofam of B?” Driem 2012.

⁷¹See the extended discussion in Ch. XII of *HPTB* (pp. 491–534), “Allofamic variation in rhymes”.

forms represent separate etyma or whether they are merely allofams of the same word-family. Not only must each proto-allofam fit our canonic template (above, “Phonological System of PTB”), but the type of variation posited must be abundantly replicated in other examples. We do not attempt to conceal such uncertainties, but frequently entertain the possibility that etyma set up as independent might actually be co-allofams, or *vice versa*.

Notational conventions and pan-allofamic formulas

The best attested patterns of variation in ST/TB are all exemplified in the etymologies of Fascicle 1.9 (*The Reproductive System*, previously published as *TBR*S). They include the following:

A Short History of STEDT Software and Database Development

Overview

The STEDT project spanned a revolutionary period in computer technology – from 1987, when (compared to today) very little was possible, and what was possible normally required a substantial programming team with lots of experience, to the present, 2015, when everyone is expected to use computerized devices of several sorts, and “collaboration” and “data sharing” are the norm. Today, databases are everywhere.

The STEDT project at times led the effort and pointed the way in computational historical linguistics; at other times, it labored to catch up as the technology “took off”.

A Timeline

In 1987, when the STEDT project started, there was no World Wide Web. (There was, of course, an internet, but it was restricted to the military and a few academic institutions.) Only mainframe computers were connected to each other via networks, and very few people used email. Most people used a device called a “modem” to “dial up” via a telephone line to access the internet and services. The ability to print specialized characters such as IPA was limited. Most people were happy that their computer (if they had one) handled both upper- and lower-case characters. Indeed, the ability to make book-quality copy required access to expensive equipment usually available only to publishers. PDFs¹ did not exist, nor was it possible to attach a document to an email (one could, however, “FTP”² a file from one computer to another, provided the proper software was installed on both sides).

“Microcomputers”, however, did exist, and were becoming ubiquitous – the IBM PC was becoming standard office equipment, and the Apple Macintosh™ had been invented a few years previously to replace the Apple II and its variations. Indeed, the Mac incorporated new-fangled features such as a *mouse*, *windows* (movable, resizable “windows” on the screen), and, “gasp” *icons*.

And the idea of “word processing”, the creation and editing of usable documents using a computer was just becoming a commonly understood term.³

Against this backdrop, the design of a system to create the Dictionary-Thesaurus and the gathering and inputting of data supporting that effort began. The first bitmap version of the STEDT font was created, and data was entered into HyperCard™ stacks. ⁴ The project had three Mac Pluses™, each with a 40MB hard disk, the maximum possible at that time. Since there was no centralized database, software was developed to export the data from the Stacks into delimited text files which could be combined and sorted into larger aggregations.

By 1989, an initial version of a publishing suite was completed, written in Spitbol ⁵, which read the delimited files, sorted the data (internally), and output “camera-ready copy” in RTF⁶. In addition, a TrueType™ version of the STEDT font had been created, enabling the publication of handsome dictionary pages on the project’s newly-acquired PostScript™ printer, a LaserWriter™.⁷

By 1990, the data and analysis supporting what was to be *Fascicle I: Body Parts* was completed, and it was on this marvelous printer that the first draft of this fascicle was printed. By then, a clear picture had emerged of the requirements of the system: the need to incorporate several levels of notes and footnotes; the ability to include graphics (mainly “semantic flowcharts”) inline; the “5-level organization” of the content; the need to (and means to) produce the front-matter and back-matter associated with the D-T (tables of contents and figures, indexes of various flavors, and so on.); and of course the need to be able to iteratively produce, on demand, draft versions of the final document for review and revision. The essence of this data flow is shown in Figure 18. The process was a strict file-to-file pipeline, in which required bits of data were incorporated in several steps, culminating with a final marked-up document (in this case in RTF), ready for printing.

Several “microcomputer database systems” became available around this time. Previous incarnations of these software components (e.g. DBASE™) were clunky and often had restrictions on their ability to handle linguistic data (as opposed to accounting data). They handled only short, fixed-length fields, and balked at “special characters”.

By 1992, STEDT data had been loaded into FoxPro™, one of the leading database systems at that time – essentially a rewrite of DBASE, without its many shortcomings, fully relational, with lots of features. The relational table structure still in use today was implemented (see Figure 17); and the first “reports” which allowed users to browse the growing database were created. The hardware too was improving. Much faster computers with larger hard disks (e.g. the Apple Quadra™) were now connected to each other by Ethernet cables, and multiple users were able to access the database at the same time. A client-server architecture was possible for the first time. The “draft fascicles” became at this point a type of report produced by using the database reporting facilities available. While the reports lacked some of the fine details desired, nay required, for final publication (e.g. nice footnotes, and inline formatting), the situation had been infinitely improved by the ability to “push a button” to produce these documents, and the ability for multiple users to access and update the database at the same time.

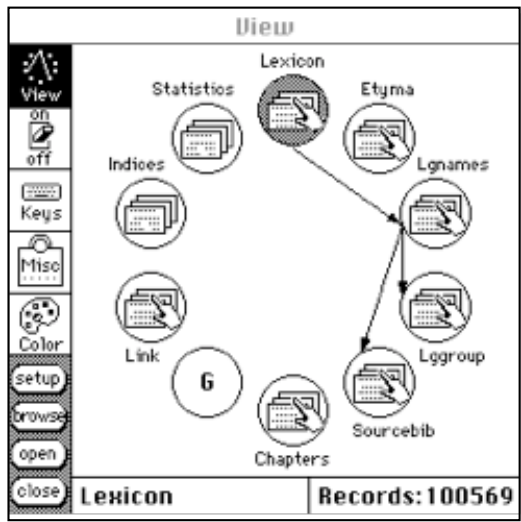


Figure 17: Relational database layout in FoxPro, circa 1992

By 1996, the database had migrated to another database platform, FileMaker Pro™, which had become a popular and flexible system for work of this sort. This new technology made it possible to incorporate data from other database (i.e. other FileMaker Pro files) and from other sources (e.g. images). An elaborate system of linked databases (called “Ancillary databases”) was produced and operated for some time for the benefit of the STEDT staff and visitors. However, the system was never very portable, nor was there a desire to publish these data in their early and preliminary state. This version remains as a “legacy document” awaiting the attention of a future generation who may wish to resurrect it from its ashes.

With the advent of the World Wide Web at about this time, it became clear that the STEDT database would eventually need to be available to the world, and besides the FileMaker version (absent further programming) was limited to use in the office; the idea of “web access” was very appealing, as it opened the possibility of having the process of *etymologization* opened up to collaborators all over the world.

Therefore, at the beginning of the 21st century, an effort was made to migrate the data and software to its current implementation as a web-based application backed by a powerful database system. Several software development iterations (some still operational on the STEDT website and available in GitHub⁸

) were developed. The current online application and publication tools are written in PERL, using the *CGI::Application framework*.⁹ and run on a so-called “LAMP stack”.¹⁰

Today, the STEDT database is freely searchable by anyone anywhere who has an internet connect web browser.¹¹ In addition, the database itself and the software used to create the etymological structure and generate the “final PDF” is available as opensource software and open data for the world to use.¹²

Database Design and the Workflow of Etymologization

Supporting the workflow of “etymologization”

While the constraints of late 20th-century software and hardware did inhibit some of the development of the software tools needed to produce the most compendious of thesauri produced to date, it was the conceptual issues surrounding the organization of the materials and specifying a robust and durable workflow that were even more restrictive.

Beside managing the basic data being input, some means of organizing it into a semantically-based etymologically-organized whole needed to be designed and implemented.

At first, i.e. for the first couple of decades of the project, the database served the needs of the goal of publishing a thesaurus. Indeed, to this day, the thesaurus remains the primary deliverable – the database and its *accoutrements* are secondary.

Analyzing the tasks, we noted that producing the dictionary entailed completing at least the following subtasks:

- CREATING A DATABASE: collecting, evaluating, entering, indexing, and ultimately archiving all significant lexical data available on the Sino-Tibetan languages.
- PERFORMING AN ETYMOLOGICAL ANALYSIS OF THE DATA: phonological reconstruction and semantic analysis of the Sino-Tibetan lexicon at various diachronic levels, according to the accepted principles of linguistic reconstruction (i.e. the comparative method).
- PREPARING THE DATA FOR PUBLICATION: Several access points must be provided both for the initial data analysis and for the final publication. Extensive supporting material was required in the form of bibliography, explanations of coding conventions and abbreviations, and other front and back matter.
- DISSEMINATING THE RESULTS: the publishing of the physical Etymological Dictionary and Thesaurus in two “tomes”. The promulgation of the database and its analysis in machine-readable form for use by other scholars in the field.

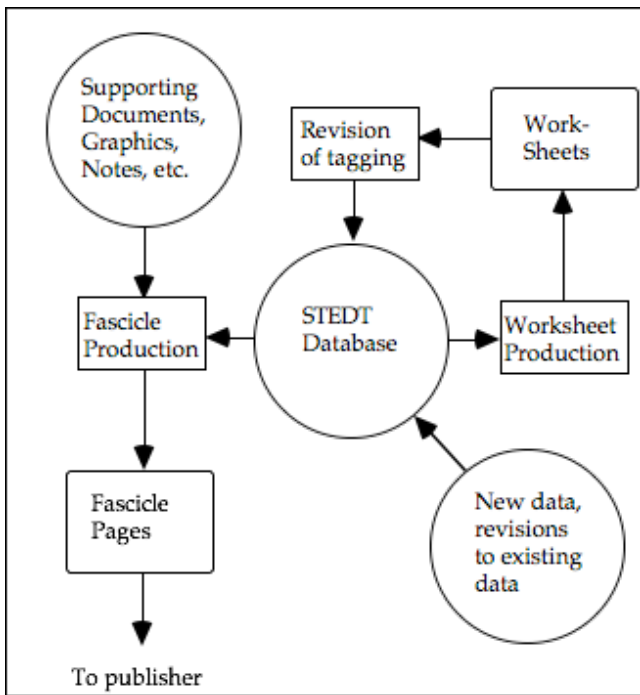


Figure 18: Etymologization and fascicle production, workflow circa 1990

Each of these tasks required a different approach and skillset. Some of them (e.g. “creating a database”) were relatively conventional and well-understood, if a bit difficult to implement in the computational milieu at the time.

The Invention of “Tagging”

We needed a means, an implementable formalism, to record the relationship between modern forms and their reconstructed ancestor. Requirements:

- allows marking (extraction) of individual morphemes in modern forms
- no specific knowledge of the sound laws required
- tolerates phonosemantic variations and accommodates allofamic representations: extrusions, affixes,
- allows flexible (re-)organization of related allofams
- quick, easy, intuitive

Production of the final “camera-ready” Dictionary-Thesaurus

The layout of the printed D-T has changed little since it was first conceived of in 1987: Etyma are sequenced within a semantic hierarchy by phonological form and solidity of attestation. Under each etymon, the supporting forms are listed by language subgroup; within subgroup the forms are ordered by language name and then by gloss. This is implemented conceptually via a five-level sort key (semantic node, etyma sequence, language subgroup, language name, gloss) associated with each supporting form. The first version of the D-T was produced by a SPITBOL program which produced MS Word RTF files. These files were edited by hand to include the front and back matter, and to generate a table of contents. The latest and final version of the D-T is generated by a PERL script which extracts sorted data from the database and outputs a series of $\LaTeX$ files which are concatenated with front and back matter content to produce a “master document”. This file is compiled using various $\LaTeX$ facilities to produce the table of contents, include the graphic components (mostly semantic flowcharts), the bibliography, and the backmatter indexes. The process is now fully automatic: a new updated version of the D-T in PDF format is produced nightly. This large document (1,126 11”x17” folio-sized pages) can be downloaded and examined at any time. The nightly file contains the latest database updates and any changes to the front and back matter text that have been checked in to the repository. Thus, the process of producing final camera ready copy is really simply a matter of choosing which nightly version to designate as the final D-T. A somewhat simplified example of a single cognate set is shown in Figure 5 below. Note the following significant details of the arrangement:

- The “5-level sort key” for Milang form shown would be: 2.1.1 + 11.00 + 2.1 + Milang + skull
- A variety of other material is interpolated into the flow of the text, including notes at various levels, figures and diagrams, and commentary. In this case, a semantic flowchart has been associated with the chapter 2.1.1, and the supporting forms have two footnotes.
- The “cognate morpheme”, that is, the portion of the transcribed lexical item that is deemed to be distinctly related to the etymon, is rendered in boldface – *in the context in which it is cited, it is important to note!*

⁹<http://search.cpan.org/~markstos/CGI-Application-4.50/lib/CGI/Application.pm>

¹⁰Linux, Apache, MySQL, Perl.

¹¹<http://stedt.berkeley.edu/search>.

¹²In a self-referential, or “meta” sort of way, it is possible to include a link to this *final PDF* both in this PDF and its printed equivalent, whichever you happen to be reading. The link, which will hopefully endure for some time to come is: <http://stedt.berkeley.edu/dissemination/stedt.pdf>

- Redundant information, e.g. repeated identical glosses, are elided from the display to increase readability and make the very complex display less busy.
- The source of every form cited is included alongside the form. This is a novel feature of the D-T.

As originally conceived, the D-T was to be published as a conventional printed reference work, probably as part of the linguistic series managed by the UC Press. However, times have changed and the demand for a printed work has diminished; the substantial cost of publishing a work of this sort is now deemed unnecessary: the PDF will be made available publicly, and a few “reference copies” of the two tome set will be produced for depository libraries, the Library of Congress and a few other interested parties. The bindery at the UC Berkeley Library has agreed to produce these tomes from the generated PDF at cost, provided a handsome imitation leather cover and a hand-stitched binding.

Acknowledgments

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- * The National Science Foundation (NSF), Division of Behavioral & Cognitive Sciences, Grant Nos. BNS-86-17726, BNS-90-11918, DBS-92-09481, FD-95-11034, SBR-9808952, BCS-9904950, BCS-0345929, BCS-0712570, and BCS-1028192.
- * The National Endowment for the Humanities (NEH), Preservation and Access, Grant Nos. RT-20789-87, RT-21203-90, RT-21420-92, PA-22843-96, PA-23353-99, PA-24168-02, PA-50709-04, PM-50072-07, and PW-50122-08.

Administrators

Several Organized Research Units and academic departments of the Berkeley campus have given their moral or practical support to the STEDT project, including the Center for Southeast Asia Studies, the Center for Chinese Studies, the Department of Linguistics, the Department of South and Southeast Asian Studies, the Department of East Asian Languages and Cultures, and especially the Institute of International and Area Studies, to whose administrative staff I am deeply obliged: Karin Beros, Management Services Officer and all-around trouble-shooter, who was instrumental in solving the practical problems of getting the project started back in 1987; Jerilyn C. Foushée, who has handled our budget and helped with our grant proposals and reports since 1987; and Nell Haskell (1987–95) and Kerttu K. McCray (1995–2002), who have kept track of personnel matters. Since 2009, the STEDT grants have been administered by the Linguistics Department, under the able stewardship of Paula Floro and Belén Flores.

Contributors

I would like to thank Anthony Meadow, founder of the Bear River Associates software development firm, now in Oakland, who generously gave many hours of his time during 1986–87 in *pro bono* consultations about how to formulate the computer needs of the project in our original grant proposals to NSF and NEH.

The importance of data contributors cannot be overstated, and STEDT would like to express the deepest gratitude to the many linguists, native speakers, and other individuals who advanced the project by contributing lexical and/or etymological data to the database. Below is a list of some of these contributors in alphabetical order of surname/family name. Some contributors have no doubt been inadvertently missed, and we apologize for any omissions. (Asterisks indicate contributions that have not (yet) been imported.)

- *Name* | *Contribution(s)*
- N. Achumi | Sumi
- M. Balawan (via Karl-Heinz Grüssner) | Tiwa
- Peri Bhaskararao | Mizo, Tiddim Chin
- Balthasar Bickel | Belhare*, Puma*
- Naomi Bishop | Sherpa Helambu
- Sri Chhimed Bodh | Spiti Tibetan
- David Bradley | Ugong, Bisu
- Philip & Cecilia Brassett | Tujia
- Seino van Breugel | Atong
- Daniel Bruhn | Central Naga languages
- Robbins Burling | Garo
- Robbins Buring & U.V. Joseph | Bodo-Garo languages*, Proto-Bodo-Garo*
- Christopher Button | Northern Chin languages*, Proto-Northern Chin*
- Ross Caughley | Chepang
- CHEN Kang | Tujia
- Katia Chirkova | Uppper Xumi*, Lizu*
- Terry Cooke | Manang*
- Alec Coupe | Mongsen Ao
- DAI Qingxia | various & sundry languages (including Deng, Himalayish, Tibetan, Qiangic, rGyalrongic, Nungic, Burmish, & Loloish languages)
- George van Driem | Dumi, Limbu
- Karen Ebert | Chamling*
- Jonathan Evans | Southern Qiang languages
- Jonathan Evans, John B. Lowe, & Jackson Tianshin Sun | Mandarin Chinese
- Michael Ferlus | Phunoi
- Carol Genetti | Newar
- Karen Grunow-Hårsta | Magar*
- Thien Haokip | Thado
- HE Zhiwu | Naxi*
- HUANG Chenglong | Yadu Qiang
- HUZIWARA Keisuke | Sak, Marma, Ganan*, Kadu*, Usoi Tripura*, Proto-Luish*
- François Jacquesson | Deori
- Tej Ratna Kansakar | Baram
- John King | Dhimal
- Tamara Kohn | Yakha
- Donald Kosha | Moyon
- Shree Krishan | Chaudangsi, Darma, Raji
- Randy LaPolla | Rawang, Dulong
- Paul Lewis | Akha
- Li Fanwen (via Richard Cook & Andrew West) | Tangut
- Li Shaoni | Jianchuan Bai*
- Liberty Lidz | Yongning Na
- Theraphan Luangthongkum | Karenic languages, Proto-Karen
- LUO Meizhen | Ahi
- Anton Lustig | Zaiwa*
- MA Erji | Daofu
- MA Xueliang | Sani
- Kamal Malla | Newar
- Ken Manson | Kayan

- LaRaw Maran et al. | Jingpho*
- James Matisoff | various & sundry languages
- Martine Mazaudon | Nepali*, Tamangic languages
- Boyd Michailovsky | Chepang, Kham, Kiranti languages, Proto-Kiranti, Magar, Nepali, Newar, Written Tibetan
- Alexis Michaud | Yonging Na, Laze
- Dinkapar Moral | Boro*, Garo*, Koch*, Tintekiya Koch*
- David Mortensen | Sorbung, Tankghulic languages, Proto-Tangkhulic
- NAGANO Yasuhiko et al. | rGyalrongic languages
- Vikuosa Nienu | Angami, Chokri, Lotha
- Michael Noonan et al. | Chantyal
- Jamin Pelkey | Phula languages
- Audra Phillips | Moulmein Pwo
- Heleen Plaisier | Lepcha
- Mark Post | Apatani*
- Mark Post et al. | Galo
- Krishna Prasad Rai, Anna Holzhausen, & Andreas Holzhausen (via Boyd Michailovsky) | Kulung
- Roland Rutgers | Yamphu
- Daya Ratna Shakya & David Hargreaves | Newar
- Suhnru Ram Sharma | Bunan, Byangsi, Manchatì, Rongpo
- SHINTANI Tadahiko | Pyen
- Ch. Yashwanta Singh | Meithei
- Helga So-Hartmann | Southern Chin languages
- David Solnit | Eastern Kayah Li*, Pa-O Karen
- SUN Hongkai | various & sundry languages (including Qiangic, Bodìc, rGyalrongic, & Loloish languages)
- Jackson Tianshin Sun | Caodeng, Mandarin Chinese, Mawo Qiang, rGBenzhen, Shili, Amdo Tibetan, Written Tibetan, “North Assam” languages, Tani languages, Proto-Tani
- Tabu Taid | Mising*
- T. Temsunungsang | Chungli Ao, Mongsen Ao
- TIAN Desheng | Tujia*
- TOBA Sueyoshi & Allen Kom | Kom Rem
- Prashanta Tripuri & Dan Jurafsky | Kokborok
- Kenneth VanBik | Kuki-Chin languages, Proto-Kuki-Chin
- Nienu Vikuosa | Angami, Chokri, Lotha
- WANG Ersong | Haoni*
- David & Nancy Watters | Kham
- Julian Wheatley | Luquan*
- Xu Xijian | Langsu, Lashi, Zaiwa*
- Shiro Yabu | Khezha
- ZHANG Fengyu | Batang Tibetan
- ZHANG Liansheng | Written Tibetan
- ZHAO Yansun (via Grace Wiersma) | Bai

STEDTniks

Out of the approximately 70 individuals (undergraduates, graduate students, post-docs) who have worked at STEDT since 1987, I am here singling out 14 for special mention because of the significance of their contributions to the project. They are cited approximately in the order in which they have received their highest degrees from U.C. Berkeley or elsewhere. It should be understood that these brief mentions in no way do justice to the brilliance of their accomplishments, or to the love I feel for them all.

Randy J. LaPolla. (STEDT, 1987–90); Ph.D. Berkeley, 1990.) Has since taught at City University of Hong Kong, La Trobe University (Melbourne), and now at Nanyang Technological University (Singapore). Specialties include Nungish, Qiangic, comparative TB grammar. Edited early STEDT monographs and questionnaires.

Jackson (Tianshin) Sun. (STEDT 1990–1992; Ph.D. Berkeley, 1993.) Now teaching, conducting research, and administrating at Academia Sinica, Taipei. Specialties include Qiangic, rGyalrongic, and the NE Indian branch of Tibeto-Burman to which he assigned the now generally accepted name “Tani”.

John B. Lowe (STEDT 1987–2000; 2010–2015; Ph.D. Berkeley, 1995.) An experienced library scientist and software engineer before joining STEDT as one of the founding members of the team, John’s role has been crucial to the success of the project. He designed and implemented most of the computational apparatus used by STEDT over the years; he invented ”tagging” and in 1987 presciently designed the organization and layout of the Dictionary-Thesaurus substantially as it is today.

Zev J. Handel. (STEDT 1991–1998; Ph.D. Berkeley, 1998.) Now Associate Professor of Chinese Language and Linguistics at University of Washington. Specialties include Chinese historical phonology, Sino-Xenic writing systems. Has contributed extensive notes on the Chinese comparanda cited in connection with TB etymologies in several STEDT publications.

Ju Namkung. (STEDT 1993–1997; M.A. Berkeley, 1995.) Currently a web and software developer in the Seattle area. She edited the widely used STEDT Monograph #3, Phonological Inventories of Tibeto-Burman Languages (1996). Editorial assistant (1996–1997) for the journal then published at STEDT, Linguistics of the Tibeto-Burman Area (LTBA).

Jonathan P. Evans. (STEDT 1990–2005; Ph.D. Berkeley, 1999.) Now Associate Research Fellow at Academia Sinica, Taipei. Specialties include Qiangic grammar and historical phonology (especially the development of rudimentary tonal systems), and language contact between Chinese and coterritorial TB languages.

Richard S. Cook. (STEDT 1998–2011; Ph.D. Berkeley, 2003.) Independent researcher, specializing in the history of Chinese characters and the Chinese lexicographical tradition. Played a central role in the production of the Handbook of Proto-Tibeto-Burman. Created electronic versions of several key reference works, which have become “ancillary STEDT databases”.

Kenneth VanBik. (STEDT 1997–2006; Ph.D. Berkeley, 2006.) Now teaching at San Jose State University. A native speaker of Lai Chin and Burmese, he has contributed many PTB etymologies based on his newly discovered Chin/Burmese cognates. His dissertation was a full reconstruction of Proto-Kuki-Chin, with over 1350 cognate sets.

David Mortensen. (STEDT 2003–2006; Ph.D. Berkeley, 2006.) Now teaching at University of Pittsburgh. Originally with a background in the Hmong-Mien family, he now also specializes in the Tangkhulic branch of the Naga languages, as well as in theoretical phonology. Played a major role in the production of the English-Lahu Lexicon.

Nina J. Keefer. (STEDT 2000–2008; M.A./M.J. Berkeley [Group in Asian Studies, Graduate School of Journalism].) Editorial Assistant for LTBA (2001–2004) and my chief assistant in the production of the English-Lahu Lexicon. Background in Burmese culture and religion. Currently working as a forensic mental health nurse in Canada.

Liberty A. Lidz. (STEDT 1998, 2009-2014). Ph.D. University of Texas at Austin (2010). Specialist in languages of the Na(xi) group, closely related to Lolo-Burmese, and author of a dissertation grammar on Yongning Na. She did extensive data analysis for the STEDT project, having tagged roughly 43% of

the forms tagged in the database at the time of publication, as well as contributing a number of new etymologies and working closely with the P.I. to rectify existing PTB roots.

Dominic Yu. (STEDT 2004–2012; Ph.D. Berkeley, 2012.) Now employed as an International UI Software Engineer at Apple. Specialist in Qiangic languages, especially those in the Ersuic group. Formatted and produced The Tibeto-Burman Reproductive System (2008). He continues to make key contributions to the structure of the STEDT database and website.

Daniel W. Bruhn. (STEDT 2009–2014; Ph.D. Berkeley, 2014.) Now a Globalization Engineer at PayPal. Specialist in the languages of the Central Naga group. A Jack-of-all-trades, he has contributed significantly to all STEDT projects, including the incorporation of new sources into our database, modifications to our underlying code, improvements in our website, and formatting of our publications.

Chundra A. Cathcart. (STEDT 2011–2015; Ph.D. Berkeley, expected 2014–5.) Currently on the STEDT staff. Specializes in the comparative/historical study of the Indo-Aryan family, and frequently identifies loans from IA languages into Tibeto-Burman. Is assisting the P.I. in the preparation for publication of a large corpus of Lahu texts.

Visiting Scholars

The STEDT project has been greatly enriched by the specialized expertise, unpublished data, and intellectual stimulation provided by a succession of visiting scholars, who have spent anywhere from a few weeks to more than two years at the project headquarters. Two especially deserve special mention:

Martine Mazaudon. (STEDT 1987–89, 1990–91; Doctorat 3e Cycle, Paris V, 1971; Doctorat d’Etat, Paris III, 1994.) Now a Researcher Emerita at the Centre National de la Recherche Scientifique (Paris), specializing in the Tibeto-Burman languages of the Tamangic group of Central Nepal. Spent two full years at STEDT.

Boyd Michailovsky. (STEDT 1987–89, 1990–91; Ph.D. Berkeley, 1981; Doctorat 3e Cycle, Paris III, 1981; Doctorat d’Etat, Paris III, 2004.) Now a Researcher Emeritus at the Centre National de la Recherche Scientifique (Paris), specializing in the Tibeto-Burman languages of the Kiranti (Rai) group of Eastern Nepal. Spent two full years at STEDT.

DAI Qingxia and XU Xijian (Oct.–Nov. 1989) Nationalities University (Beijing), TB languages of China; ZHANG Jichuan (Nov. 1990) Chinese Academy of Social Sciences (Beijing), Tibetan dialects; the late Rev. George Kraft (1990–99), Kham Tibetan; Nicolas Tournadre (Feb. 1991) University of Paris III, Tibetan; SUN Hongkai and LIU Guangkun (April–May, 1991) Chinese Academy of Social Sciences (Beijing), TB languages of China; YABU Shiro (April–Aug. 1994) Osaka Foreign Languages University, Burmish languages and Xixia; William H. Baxter III (May, 1995) University of Michigan, Old Chinese; Balthasar Bickel (Sept.–Oct. 1996; Feb.–Mar. 1997) University of Zürich and Johann Gutenberg University (Mainz), Kiranti languages; LIN Ying-chin (1997–98) Academia Sinica, Taipei (Xixia, Muya); David B. Solnit (1998–) STEDT, Karenic; WU Sheng-hsiung (Spring, 2002) Taiwan Normal University, Chinese phonology; IKEDA Takumi (2002–03) Kyoto University, Qiangic languages; Yashawanta Singh Manipur University (Imphal) Meithei; Maung Maung (Aaron Tun) (2011) Payap University (Chiangmai), Lahu; LI Yan (2013–14) Shaanxi Normal University (Xi’an) Historical linguistics and dialectology.

Complete List of STEDTniks

Most of all, I am indebted to the phalanges of talented students, past and present, who have been working at STEDT anywhere from five to 20 or 30 hours per week, performing a host of vital tasks such as the inputting and proofreading of hundreds of thousands of lexical records, the development of special fonts and relational database software, computer maintenance and troubleshooting, formatting articles for our journal *Linguistics of the Tibeto-Burman Area*, and editing the publications in the STEDT Monograph Series. 70 researchers have contributed to the STEDT project since 1987, mostly graduate students working as research assistants in the Berkeley Linguistics and East Asian Languages and Cultures Departments, but also including several undergraduate volunteers and non-enrolled or former students. Here they are, in an alphabetical honor roll:

- | | | |
|----------------------------|-------------------------------|------------------------|
| • Madeleine Adkins | • Kira Hall | • Ju Namkung |
| • Jocelyn Ahlers | • Zev J. Handel | • Toshio Otori |
| • Shelley Axmaker | • Takumi Ikeda | • Weera Ostapirat |
| • Kenny Baclawski | • Alexander Jacobson | • Jeong-Woon Park |
| • Stephen P. Baron | • Annie Jaisser | • Jason Patent |
| • Leela Bilmes (Goldstein) | • Matthew Juge | • Chris Redfearn |
| • Michael Brodhead | • Daniel Jurafsky | • S. Ruffin |
| • Daniel Bruhn | • David Kamholz | • Keith Sanders |
| • Chundra Cathcart | • Nina Keefer | • Marina Shawver |
| • Jeff Chan | • Jean Kim | • Elizabeth Shriberg |
| • Patrick Chew | • Kyung-Ah Kim | • Helen Singmaster |
| • Melissa Chin | • Heidi Kong | • Tanya Smith |
| • Isara Choosri | • Aimée Lahaussois (Bartosik) | • Gabriela Solomon |
| • Richard Cook | • Randy J. LaPolla | • Silvia Sotomayor |
| • Jeff Dale | • Jennifer Leehey | • Jackson Tianshin Sun |
| • Amy Dolcourt | • Anita Liang | • Laurel Sutton |
| • Julia Elliot | • Liberty Lidz | • Prashanta Tripura |
| • Jonathan P. Evans | • John B. Lowe | • Margaret Urban |
| • Allegra Giovine | • Jean McAneny | • Nancy Urban |
| • Cynthia Gould | • Pamela Morgan | • Kenneth VanBik |
| • Daniel Granville | • David Mortensen | • Blong Xiong |
| • Joshua Guenter | • Karin Myrhe | • Dominic Yu |
| | | • Liansheng Zhang |

Conventions

Abbreviations for Languages Commonly Referred to in the text

Gk. Greek	PIE Proto-Indo-European
HM Hmong-Mien (= Miao-Yao)	PLB Proto-Lolo-Burmese
IA Indo-Aryan	PNC Proto-Northern Chin
IE Indo-European	PNN Proto-Northern Naga
Jg. Jingpho (= Kachin)	PST Proto-Sino-Tibetan
KC Kuki-Chin	PTB Proto-Tibeto-Burman
LB Lolo-Burmese	Skt. Sanskrit
Lh. Lahu	ST Sino-Tibetan
MC Middle Chinese	TB Tibeto-Burman
NN Northern Naga	TK Tai-Kadai
NT Northern Tai	WB Written Burmese
OC Old Chinese	WT Written Tibetan

Conventions Used in Citing the Source of Individual Wordforms

- The wide variety of sources included in the database make it difficult to provide a single pointer to a wordform in a source. Typically, an inline bibliographic citation includes something like the author’s name, a year (with alphabetic disambiguator if needed) and a page number.

In the STEDT database, many sources do not have page numbers; and at any rate a page number is often not the most useful identifier. We therefore developed an informal system for marking provenance:

 - If the source is short and has no page numbers, we have usually omitted source identifiers. A reader who is curious to ex-
- amine the wordform in its context must locate the hardcopy and find the item using the collation and indexing conventions provided.

 - For etymological sources, e.g. the *Conspetus* (*STC*), we used the etymological set number; since many forms are cited that do not belong to sets, we have indicated the page and note number where the form is to be found, e.g. 123n5.
 - A number of sources utilize some sort of hierarchical (e.g. semantic) organization of the forms. In most of these cases, we used the hierarchical numbering system provided.

Miscellaneous

- allofam** a variant of an etymon

allofam box a computer display where all the allofams of an etymon are grouped together within a box on the screen

chapter the smallest section of a fascicle, containing all the etyma reconstructed with a given gloss, e.g. KIDNEY

extra-fascicular etyma etyma that are cited outside of their normal fascicle to illustrate a particular point

fascicle a major section of a STEDT volume, comprising many chapters with closely related glosses, e.g. INTERNAL ORGANS

metastatic flowchart a diagram illustrating the patterns of semantic association displayed by an etymon

meso-reconstruction reconstruction of an etymon at the subgroup level, deemed to be descended from that same etymon at a higher taxonomic level

meso-root an etymon reconstructed at the subgroup level

pan-allofamic formula (PAF) an abstract reconstruction intended to display simultaneously all the patterns of variation attested for a given etymon

rectification the process by which etymologies are subjected to reanalysis, to determine whether they should be accepted
- as is, accepted with modifications, or rejected

root canal the process through which a STEDT etymology is made public, so that it can be commented upon

semantic flowchart SEE metastatic flowchart

semcat a semantic category; each STEDT etymology is assigned to one or more of them

supporting forms forms from individual languages that support an etymology

volume one of the ten major divisions of STEDT, e.g. BODY-PARTS

weakly attested root a promising etymology, but with insufficient support

> goes to; becomes

< comes from; is derivable from

* indicates a reconstructed form (e.g. PTB ***b-ləy**), or acts as a synonym for “proto-” (e.g. *labials, *Kuki-Chin)

A **⌘** B A and B are co-allofams; A and B are members of the same word-family

A **⌘?** B Are A and B co-allofams? Do A and B belong to the same word family?

A *** B** A and B are not co-allofams; A and B do not belong to the same word family

Clf. classifier

lit. literally

ult. ultimately

Abbreviations for People

AH André-Georges Haudricourt	KVB Ken VanBik
B & S (William H.) Baxter & (Laurent) Sagart	WHB William H. Baxter
JAM James A. Matisoff	WTF Walter T. French (cf. French 1983)
JS Jackson Sun	ZJH Zev J. Handel

Abbreviations for Sources and Venues

AD <i>Analytic Dictionary of Chinese and Sino-Japanese</i> (Karlgren 1923)	(L)TSR <i>The Loloish Tonal Split Revisited</i> (Matisoff 1972b)
DL <i>The Dictionary of Lahu</i> (Matisoff 1988a)	STC <i>Sino-Tibetan: a Conspectus</i> (Benedict 1972)
GL <i>The Grammar of Lahu</i> (Matisoff 1973/1982)	TBL 藏缅语族语言词汇 [<i>A Tibeto-Burman lexicon</i>] (HUANG Bufan & DAI Qingxia, eds. 1992)
GSR <i>Grammata Serica Recensa</i> (Karlgren 1957)	TBRs <i>The Tibeto-Burman Reproductive System: Toward an Etymological Thesaurus</i> (Matisoff 2008)
GSTC/G&C <i>God and the Sino-Tibetan Copula</i> (Matisoff 1985a)	VSTB Variational Semantics in Tibeto-Burman: The ‘Organic’ Approach to Linguistic Comparison (Matisoff 1978b)
HCT <i>A Handbook of Comparative Tai</i> (Li Fang Kuei 1977)	ZMYYC 藏缅语语音和词汇 [<i>Tibeto-Burman phonology and lexicon</i>] (SUN Hongkai et al. 1991)
HPTB Handbook of Proto-Tibeto-Burman (Matisoff 2003a)	
ICSTLL International Conference on Sino-Tibetan Languages and Linguistics	
LTBA <i>Linguistics of the Tibeto-Burman Area</i>	